

Physics Reference Notes

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July 28, 2026

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1 Variational fermionic wave functions on lattices

1.1 Summary

1.2 Crash course on the origin of antisymmetric wave functions

This can be found in probably any introductory book on quantum mechanics, here I directly follow Schwabl, *Quantum Mechanics*, section 13.1.

The Heisenberg uncertainty relation implies that identical particles are indistinguishable. Consequently the probability amplitude $|\psi(x_1, \dots, x_N)|^2$ of a quantum many-body state is invariant under the exchange $x_i \leftrightarrow x_j$ of two indistinguishable particles. Define the exchange operator

$$P_{ij} \psi(x_1, \dots, x_i, \dots, x_j, \dots, x_N) := \psi(x_1, \dots, x_j, \dots, x_i, \dots, x_N), \quad (1)$$

so that invariance of the amplitude gives

$$P_{ij} \psi(\mathbf{x}) = \lambda \psi(\mathbf{x}), \quad |\lambda|^2 = 1. \quad (2)$$

Furthermore, exchanging the same two particles twice cannot change the wave function at all, hence

$$P_{ij}^2 \psi(\mathbf{x}) = \lambda^2 \psi(\mathbf{x}) = \psi(\mathbf{x}) \implies \lambda^2 = 1, \text{ i.e. } \lambda = \pm 1. \quad (3)$$

Fermions are the particles for which $\lambda = -1$, i.e.

$$\boxed{\psi(\dots, x_i, \dots, x_j, \dots) = -\psi(\dots, x_j, \dots, x_i, \dots)} \quad (4)$$

and thus $\psi(\dots, x_i, \dots, x_i, \dots) = 0$.

1.3 Slater determinants

Here we loosely follow E. Koch, *Mean-Field Theory: Hartree-Fock and BCS* (Jülich 2024), section 1.

Let $\{\varphi_n\}$ be a complete, orthonormal single-particle basis,

$$\sum_n \varphi_n^*(x) \varphi_n(x') = \delta(x - x') \quad (\text{complete}), \quad (5)$$

$$\int dx \varphi_n^*(x) \varphi_m(x) = \delta_{nm} \quad (\text{orthonormal}). \quad (6)$$

An arbitrary N -particle function can then be expanded in its first argument as

$$a(x_1, \dots, x_N) = \sum_{n_1} a_{n_1}(x_2, \dots, x_N) \varphi_{n_1}(x_1), \quad \text{with} \quad (7)$$

$$a_{n_1}(x_2, \dots, x_N) = \int dx'_1 \varphi_{n_1}^*(x'_1) a(x'_1, x_2, \dots, x_N). \quad (8)$$

Iterating in all arguments, yields

$$\psi(x_1, \dots, x_N) = \sum_{n_1, \dots, n_N} a_{n_1, \dots, n_N} \varphi_{n_1}(x_1) \cdots \varphi_{n_N}(x_N), \quad (9)$$

which is not antisymmetric yet. Now apply the antisymmetrizer $\mathcal{A}$, with $\text{sgn}(P) = (-1)^P$:

$$\mathcal{A}\psi(x_1, \dots, x_N) \stackrel{[\text{K } (3)]}{=} \frac{1}{\sqrt{N!}} \sum_P (-1)^P \psi(x_{P(1)}, \dots, x_{P(N)}) \quad (10)$$

$$= \frac{1}{\sqrt{N!}} \sum_P (-1)^P \sum_{n_1, \dots, n_N} a_{n_1, \dots, n_N} \varphi_{n_1}(x_{P(1)}) \cdots \varphi_{n_N}(x_{P(N)}) \quad (11)$$

$$= \sum_{n_1, \dots, n_N} a_{n_1, \dots, n_N} \Phi_{n_1, \dots, n_N}(x_1, \dots, x_N), \quad (12)$$

where we have used the *Slater determinant*

$$\Phi_{\alpha_1, \dots, \alpha_N}(x_1, \dots, x_N) \stackrel{[\text{K } (4)]}{=} \frac{1}{\sqrt{N!}} \begin{vmatrix} \varphi_{\alpha_1}(x_1) & \varphi_{\alpha_2}(x_1) & \cdots & \varphi_{\alpha_N}(x_1) \\ \varphi_{\alpha_1}(x_2) & \varphi_{\alpha_2}(x_2) & \cdots & \varphi_{\alpha_N}(x_2) \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ \varphi_{\alpha_1}(x_N) & \varphi_{\alpha_2}(x_N) & \cdots & \varphi_{\alpha_N}(x_N) \end{vmatrix} \quad (13)$$

$$\stackrel{\text{Leibniz}}{=} \frac{1}{\sqrt{N!}} \sum_{P \in S_N} \text{sgn}(P) \prod_{i=1}^N \varphi_{\alpha_i}(x_{P(i)}). \quad (14)$$

Hence **any** $\psi(x_1, \dots, x_N)$ **can be expanded in Slater determinants**. Furthermore, it follows immediately that $\psi(\mathbf{x})$ vanishes if either $x_i = x_j$ or $\alpha_i = \alpha_j$ for $i \neq j$: **fermions cannot occupy the same position x or the same quantum state α** .

1.4 The variational principle

Following F. Becca & S. Sorella, *Quantum Monte Carlo Approaches for Correlated Systems*, section 1.4.

Formulate some variational state $|\psi_{\text{var}}\rangle$ and consider

$$E_{\text{var}} = \frac{\langle \psi_{\text{var}} | H | \psi_{\text{var}} \rangle}{\langle \psi_{\text{var}} | \psi_{\text{var}} \rangle} \quad [\text{B\&S (1.38)}]. \quad (15)$$

Expanding in the energy eigenstates $|\varphi_i\rangle$,

$$|\psi_{\text{var}}\rangle = \sum_i |\varphi_i\rangle \langle \varphi_i | \psi_{\text{var}} \rangle = \sum_i a_i |\varphi_i\rangle \quad [\text{B\&S (1.39)}], \quad (16)$$

so that, using $\langle \varphi_i | \varphi_j \rangle = \delta_{ij}$,

$$E_{\text{var}} = \left(\sum_i |a_i|^2 \right)^{-1} \left(\sum_i a_i |\varphi_i\rangle \right)^\dagger H \left(\sum_j a_j |\varphi_j\rangle \right) = \left(\sum_i |a_i|^2 \right)^{-1} \sum_i |a_i|^2 E_i. \quad (17)$$

Assume $E_i \leq E_j$ for $i < j$, i.e. E_0 is the ground-state energy. Then

$$E_{\text{var}} - E_0 = \underbrace{\left(\sum_i |a_i|^2 \right)}_{>0}^{-1} \underbrace{\left(\sum_{i \neq 0} |a_i|^2 \right)}_{\geq 0} \underbrace{(E_i - E_0)}_{\geq 0} \geq 0 \quad [\text{B\&S (1.41)}], \quad (18)$$

i.e. E_{var} is an upper bound for the exact energy. In practice: parametrize some $|\psi_{\text{var}}\rangle$ and minimize E_{var} .

1.5 Variational wave functions

1.5.1 Hartree-Fock wave functions

The Hartree-Fock (HF) approximation writes the many-body wave function as a product of single-particle orbitals,

$$|\psi_{\text{HF}}\rangle = \prod_{\alpha=1}^{N_e} \phi_{\alpha}^{\dagger} |0\rangle, \quad \phi_{\alpha}^{\dagger} = \sum_{i=1}^N \sum_{\sigma} W_{\sigma,\alpha,i} c_{i,\sigma}^{\dagger}, \quad \sigma = \uparrow, \downarrow \quad (19)$$

with N lattice sites and N_e electrons. This leaves $2 \cdot N_e \cdot N$ parameters instead of the exponentially many amplitudes of a generic many-body state. The parameters are then optimized by minimizing

$$E_{\text{HF}} = \frac{\langle \psi_{\text{HF}} | H | \psi_{\text{HF}} \rangle}{\langle \psi_{\text{HF}} | \psi_{\text{HF}} \rangle}, \quad \text{e.g.} \quad W_{\sigma,\alpha,i} \rightarrow W_{\sigma,\alpha,i} - \frac{\partial E_{\text{HF}}}{\partial W_{\sigma,\alpha,i}^*} \delta\tau \quad [\text{B\&S (1.54)}], \quad (20)$$

using Wirtinger derivatives (see section 7).

The HF wave function can equivalently be written in first quantization as **one Slater determinant**. Since it is a *product of single-particle orbitals*, it is mostly useful in the non-interacting case or at weak coupling. In the Hubbard model, turning up U makes the motion of one electron depend on where the other electrons are, i.e. it generates electron-electron correlation.

1.5.2 The Gutzwiller wave function

Gutzwiller's idea: describe the effect of the Hubbard U interaction by reducing the weight of configurations with multiply occupied sites. Start from some ground state $|\psi_0\rangle$ (e.g. non-interacting, a Slater determinant) and apply an operator P_g that suppresses such configurations:

$$|\psi_g\rangle = P_g |\psi_0\rangle \quad [\text{B\&S (1.58)}] \quad (21)$$

$$\text{with} \quad P_g = \exp \left[-\frac{g}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N (n_i - n)^2 \right] \quad [\text{B\&S (1.59)}], \quad (22)$$

where $n_i = \sum_{\sigma} n_{i\sigma}$ and $n = \frac{1}{N} \langle \sum_{i=1}^N n_i \rangle$ is the average density per site. Here g is the variational parameter ($g > 0$ for the repulsive Hubbard model).

Given some configuration $|x\rangle$, P_g counts how many sites within that state have higher or lower occupation than the average; for repulsive interactions these states are suppressed accordingly:

$$\langle x|\psi_g\rangle = P_g(x) \langle x|\psi_0\rangle, \quad P_g(x) \leq 1 \quad [\text{B\&S (1.60)}]. \quad (23)$$

Since $P_g(x) \geq 0$, it *does not* affect the sign structure.

In the Hubbard model a metal-insulator transition is expected at *finite* U/t for $n = 1$. The Gutzwiller wave function can only reproduce this for $g \rightarrow \infty$; otherwise there is always a non-zero probability for doublon-holon creation, and these could then move around freely and thus conduct.

Fully projected Gutzwiller wave function ($g \rightarrow \infty$). Examine P_∞ for $n = 1$:

$$P_\infty = \lim_{g \rightarrow \infty} P_g = \lim_{g \rightarrow \infty} \exp \left[-\frac{g}{2} \sum_{i=1}^N (\hat{n}_i - 1)^2 \right], \quad (24)$$

$$\begin{aligned} \Rightarrow \quad P_\infty |\psi\rangle &= \lim_{g \rightarrow \infty} \begin{cases} \exp(-\frac{g}{2}a), & \text{if } \exists \text{ site with a holon/doublon } (a > 0) \\ \exp(0), & \text{else} \end{cases} |\psi\rangle \\ &= \begin{cases} 0 \\ |\psi\rangle \end{cases} \end{aligned} \quad (25)$$

Therefore we can rewrite P_∞ as (B&S (1.63))

$$P_\infty = \prod_i (n_{i,\uparrow} - n_{i,\downarrow})^2. \quad (26)$$

If we want to allow empty sites, one has to set

$$P_\infty = \prod_i (1 - n_{i,\uparrow} n_{i,\downarrow}), \quad (27)$$

which is important for $n < 1$, since then holons and doublons do not come in pairs.

For $g = \infty$ no density fluctuations can occur, whereas in a true insulator density fluctuations do occur but produce no net current – e.g. double-occupancy fluctuations via virtual processes in the Hubbard model at large U ¹.

1.5.3 The density-density Jastrow wave function

Since the Gutzwiller wave function does not correctly describe an insulator, the ansatz requires modification. We can, for instance, change the correlation term that is applied

¹see *Lecture Notes on Correlation and Magnetism*, Patrik Fazekas, chapter 5, t - J model)

to $|\psi_0\rangle$ (or change $|\psi_0\rangle \rightsquigarrow |\psi_{U=\infty}\rangle$). The Jastrow factor does this by including long-range correlations:

$$\mathcal{J} = \exp \left[-\frac{1}{2} \sum_{i,j} v_{ij} (n_i - n)(n_j - n) \right] \quad [\text{B\&S (1.65)}] \quad (28)$$

$$|\psi_{\mathcal{J}}\rangle = \mathcal{J}|\psi_0\rangle = |\psi_g\rangle, \quad \text{for } v_{ij} = \delta_{ij} g \quad [\text{B\&S (1.64)}]. \quad (29)$$

For translationally invariant systems the variational parameters are $v_{ij} = v_{|i-j|}$, i.e. $\mathcal{O}(L)$ possible different distances.

The long-range correlations induced by $\mathcal{J}$ shall create a bound state between holons and doublons, possibly hindering conduction while still allowing local density fluctuations. It can be shown that the behaviour of v_{ij} resulting from an energy minimization is *not* enough to capture a fully gapped phase (power-law behaviour is present, but the Fourier transform of v_{ij} decays exponentially).

Jastrow-Slater wave function. In the case $v_{ij} = v_{ji}$ the Jastrow factor is symmetric under particle exchange, so (in first quantization) it can be combined with a Slater determinant to obtain a suitable fermionic wave function, $\psi_{\text{JS}}(\mathbf{x}) = \langle \mathbf{x} | \psi_{\text{JS}} \rangle$:

$$\psi_{\text{JS}}(\mathbf{r}_1, \dots, \mathbf{r}_{N_e}) = \exp \left[-\sum_{i<j} v_{ij} (n_i - n)(n_j - n) \right] \cdot \psi_{\text{HF}}(\mathbf{r}_1, \dots, \mathbf{r}_{N_e}), \quad (30)$$

with $\psi_{\text{HF}}(\mathbf{r}_1, \dots, \mathbf{r}_{N_e}) = \det\{\phi_\alpha(\mathbf{r}_i)\}$ and $\{\phi_\alpha(\mathbf{r}_i)\}$ a set of one-particle orbitals (see B&S (1.68)).

1.5.4 The backflow wave function

As explained earlier, the set of Slater determinants forms a basis of the N -electron Hilbert space, so one can systematically improve HF by adding more Slater determinants, but this is computationally very demanding. Instead: **try to improve one single Slater determinant by making the orbitals configuration dependent**, which goes beyond mean field.

Original idea. The movement of one particle “pushes other particles away” in order to avoid large overlap among them, i.e. a “counter flow” of all other particles – hence *backflow correlations*. One therefore constructs the Slater determinant with modified coordinates (continuum backflow),

$$\mathbf{r}_i^b = \mathbf{r}_i + \sum_{j \neq i} \eta(|\mathbf{r}_i - \mathbf{r}_j|) (\mathbf{r}_i - \mathbf{r}_j), \quad (31)$$

which also describes the effective displacement of the i -th particle due to the j -th one.

On a lattice. For lattice models this effective displacement is much less useful, since all distances are discretized. Instead one changes the one-particle orbitals:

$$\phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}^b) \simeq \phi_k^b(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}) \equiv \phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}) + \sum_j c_{ij}[x] \phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{j,\sigma}) \quad (32)$$

where $\phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}) = \langle 0 | c_{i,\sigma} | \phi_k \rangle$, the $|\phi_k\rangle$ are eigenstates of the mean-field Hamiltonian, and $|x\rangle$ is the many-body configuration of the system.

This is essentially a *dynamic linear combination of orbitals*: dynamic, since it *depends on the electron configuration*. In the Hubbard model at large U one can hybridize the orbitals as follows:

$$\phi_k^b(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}) = \varepsilon \phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{i,\sigma}) + \eta \sum_j t_{ij} (D_i H_j) \phi_k(\mathbf{r}_{j,\sigma}) \quad (33)$$

i.e. hybridize the orbitals at i and j if there is a doublon at i and a holon at j , such that the electron can minimize energy by going to the empty site².

Summary. Backflow correlations improve a single Slater determinant by replacing fixed single-particle orbitals with **configuration-dependent orbitals**, effectively introducing **many-body corrections** through a determinant whose elements depend on the full configuration. Combining this with a Jastrow factor gives the Slater-Jastrow-backflow wave function.

1.6 Parametrization via neural networks

Now let us have a look at how neural networks are used for variational states. There is no single resource that reviews the physics-motivated approaches like backflow, hidden fermions etc., so we mostly look at the corresponding papers.

1.6.1 Backflow transformations via neural networks

Following D. Luo & B.K. Clark, *Backflow Transformations via Neural Networks for Quantum Many-Body Wave Functions*.

Recall the definition of backflow introduced by Tocchio et al. in “Role of backflow correlations for the non-magnetic phase of the t - t' Hubbard model”, Eq. (4):

$$\phi_{k\sigma}^b(r_{i,\sigma}; \mathbf{x}) = \phi_{k\sigma}(r_{i,\sigma}) + \sum_j \eta_{ij,\sigma} \phi_{k\sigma}(r_{j,\sigma}), \quad (34)$$

$$\eta_{ij,\sigma} = t D_i H_j \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma}, \quad (\text{L\&C (6)}) \quad (35)$$

with $D_i = n_{i,\uparrow} n_{i,\downarrow}$ and $H_i = (1 - n_{i,\uparrow})(1 - n_{i,\downarrow})$ counting doublons and holons.

The i, j -dependence of the hopping amplitudes t_{ij} is absorbed in the variational parameters $\Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma}$; e.g. for next-nearest-neighbour hopping one sets them to zero if $|i - j| \neq 1, 2$.

Now we make the ansatz to parametrize the backflow part via a neural network:

$$\phi_{k\sigma}^b(r_{i,\sigma}; \mathbf{x}) = \phi_{k\sigma}(r_{i,\sigma}) + a_{ki,\sigma}^{\text{NN}}(\mathbf{x}) \quad (\text{L\&C (5)}) \quad (36)$$

The typical advantage of a NN parametrization is that neural networks are universal approximators. On top of that, one can show **explicitly how to construct the backflow with a NN with two hidden layers**:

²cf. “Role of backflow correlations for the non-magnetic phase of the t - t' Hubbard model” by Tocchio and Sorella, Eqs. (2)-(4)

Step 1: rewrite η as a ReLU. Assuming $t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} \geq 0$,

$$\eta_{ij,\sigma} = t D_i H_j \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} = t n_{i,\uparrow} n_{i,\downarrow} h_{j,\uparrow} h_{j,\downarrow} \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma},$$

which is nonzero only if $n_{i,\uparrow} = n_{i,\downarrow} = h_{j,\uparrow} = h_{j,\downarrow} = 1$, and hence

$$\eta_{ij,\sigma} = \text{ReLU} \left[t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} (n_{i,\uparrow} + n_{i,\downarrow} + h_{j,\uparrow} + h_{j,\downarrow} - 3) \right].$$

Step 2: input layer. The NN shall have the input layer

$$\left(\underbrace{\sigma_1, \dots, \sigma_N}_{\text{spin up}}, \underbrace{\sigma_{N+1}, \dots, \sigma_{2N}}_{\text{spin down}} \right), \quad \text{with}$$

$$\sigma_i = 2n_{i,\uparrow} - 1, \quad \sigma_{i+N} = 2n_{i,\downarrow} - 1, \quad i = 1, \dots, N.$$

Inverting the relation for σ_i and inserting it into $\eta_{ij,\sigma}$,

$$\eta_{ij,\sigma} = \text{ReLU} \left[\frac{1}{2} t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} (\sigma_i + \sigma_{i+N} - \sigma_j - \sigma_{j+N} - 2) \right],$$

with $i, j \in \{1, \dots, N\}$ and $\sigma = \pm 1$.

Step 3: first hidden layer. Use this to construct $\eta_{ij,\sigma}$ as the following NN (cf. fig. 1):

$$v_k = \sum_{\ell=1}^{2N} w_{k\ell} \sigma_\ell + b_k, \quad \text{set } k = \sigma \cdot (i + N \cdot j). \quad (37)$$

$$\Rightarrow v_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j)} = \sum_{\ell=1}^{2N} w_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j), \ell} \sigma_\ell + b_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j)}, \quad (38)$$

with

$$b_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j)} = -t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} \quad \text{and} \quad w_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j), \ell} = \frac{t}{2} \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \ell \% N = i \\ -1 & \text{if } \ell \% N = j \\ 0 & \text{else} \end{cases} \quad (39)$$

such that $\eta_{ij,\sigma} = \text{ReLU}(v_{\sigma \cdot (i+N \cdot j)})$.

Step 4: second hidden layer. Finally, the full backflow is obtained by adding another hidden layer which takes the $\eta_{ij,\sigma}$ as inputs and weights them by the single-particle orbitals $\phi_k(r_{j,\sigma})$. The activation function of this layer is simply the identity. If $t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma} < 0$, the minus sign can be absorbed into this layer, resulting in

$$a_{ki,\sigma}^{\text{NN}}(\mathbf{r}) = \sum_j \underbrace{\eta_{ij,\sigma}}_{\text{inputs}} \underbrace{s_{ij,\sigma} \phi_{k\sigma}(r_{j,\sigma})}_{\text{weights}}, \quad s_{ij,\sigma} = \text{sgn}(t \Theta_{|i-j|,\sigma}) = \pm 1. \quad (40)$$

$\Rightarrow$ **the backflow can be represented by a neural network.**

In practice, one simply chooses some NN (RBM, MLP, CNN, ...) and lets backpropagation take care of the rest.

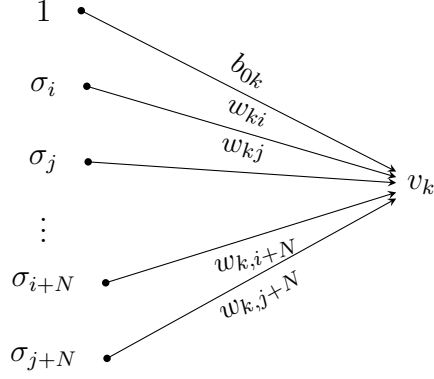


Figure 1: First hidden layer producing v_k , with $k = \sigma \cdot (i + N \cdot j)$.

1.7 References

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2 From the electron-phonon interaction to the BCS ground state

2.1 Overview

The road from deriving the Hamiltonian of the electron-phonon interaction to the BCS Hamiltonian, the physics it contains and finally its ground state is quite long and necessitates many calculations. Hence, this note only gives a concise summary and then refers to the literature for more information. I mostly follow *Solid State Theory 2* by Gerd Czycholl; equation numbers of the form (C 5.7) refer to that book. The Hamiltonian used as a starting point is derived by Czycholl in Sec. 7.1 of his first book and also by Bruus and Flensberg in Ch. 3 of *Many-Body Quantum Theory in Condensed Matter Physics*. If you are simply interested in the BCS ground state, you can directly skip to section 2.1.4. If you want the details, refer to section 2.2.

2.1.1 Attractive electron-electron interaction through the electron-phonon mechanism

Intuitive picture/motivation. An electron e_1 moving through the lattice distorts it, i.e. it drags the positive ions towards itself and leaves behind a region of enhanced positive charge. A second electron e_2 then feels an attraction to e_1 through this phonon excitation caused by e_1 . The result is an effective electron-electron interaction that is attractive.

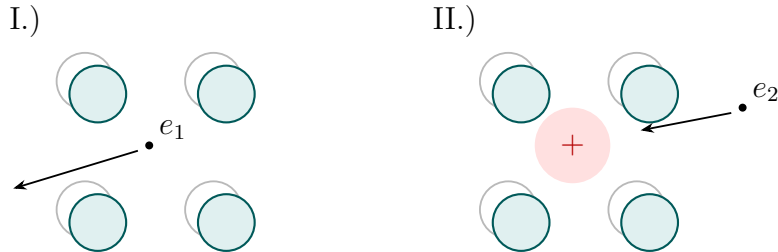


Figure 2: The lattice distortion caused by e_1 (I.) outlives its passage and attracts a second electron e_2 (II.).

Starting point. The starting point for all our derivations is the Fröhlich Hamiltonian, derived in Czycholl Band 1, Sec. 7.1 (7.13)–(7.15) or Bruus and Flensberg, Sec. 3.8, (C 5.7):

$$H = \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma} \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma}^{\dagger} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma} + \sum_{\mathbf{q}} \hbar \omega_{\mathbf{q}} b_{\mathbf{q}}^{\dagger} b_{\mathbf{q}} + \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{q}, \sigma} \left[M(\mathbf{q}) c_{\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{q}, \sigma}^{\dagger} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma} b_{\mathbf{q}} + M(-\mathbf{q}) c_{\mathbf{k}-\mathbf{q}, \sigma}^{\dagger} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma} b_{\mathbf{q}}^{\dagger} \right], \quad (41)$$

with $\omega_{-\mathbf{q}} = \omega_{\mathbf{q}}$ and $M(-\mathbf{q}) = M(\mathbf{q})$.

Canonical transformation. Use a canonical transformation³ $H \rightsquigarrow H_T = e^{-iS} H e^{iS}$ to find a purely electronic Hamiltonian that describes this interaction, i.e. to get rid of processes

³See section 3 for more general information on similarity transformations.

that change the number of phonons. At one point one simply restricts the Hamiltonian not to mix states with different phonon configurations.

The canonical transformation yields $H_T \cong H_0 + H_{\text{int}}$ with the interaction (C 5.25)

$$H_{\text{int}} = -\frac{1}{2} \sum_{\sigma, \sigma'} \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{k}', \mathbf{q}} V_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{k}', \mathbf{q}} c_{\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{q}, \sigma}^\dagger c_{\mathbf{k}'-\mathbf{q}, \sigma'}^\dagger c_{\mathbf{k}', \sigma'} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma}, \quad (42)$$

which is attractive if $|\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} - \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}-\mathbf{q}}| \leq \hbar\omega_{\mathbf{q}} \leq \hbar\omega_D$ in $V_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{k}', \mathbf{q}}$, where ω_D is the Debye frequency, and can be represented as in fig. 3.

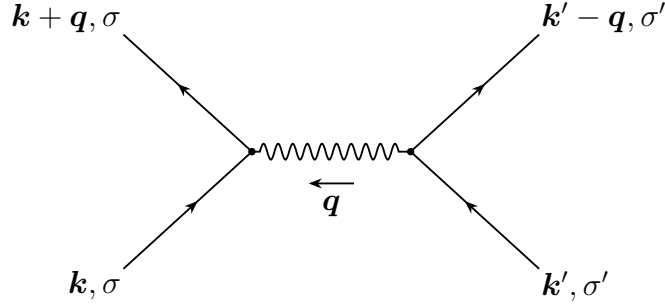


Figure 3: Vertex corresponding to eq. (42): two electrons exchange a phonon of momentum $\mathbf{q}$.

Since we know that the momentum transfer is $\mathbf{q}$, we know that $(\mathbf{k}, \sigma) \rightarrow (\mathbf{k}' - \mathbf{q}, \sigma')$ is not a valid fermion line.

2.1.2 Cooper pairs

In order to examine how this attractive interaction might change the many-body ground state, one looks at a highly simplified model:

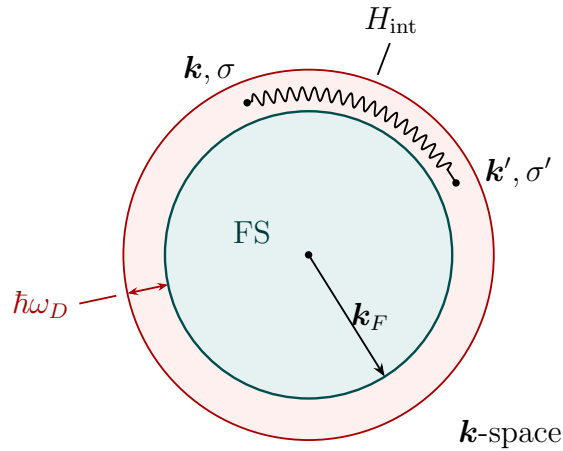


Figure 4: Only states in a shell of width $\hbar\omega_D$ around the Fermi surface take part in the effective interaction.

- a system of free, non-interacting electrons, i.e. the Fermi sea (C 5.27)

$$|\phi_0\rangle = \prod_{\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} \leq \varepsilon_F, \sigma} c_{\mathbf{k},\sigma}^\dagger |0\rangle, \quad (43)$$

- the effective interaction is only present for two electrons that are placed right outside of the Fermi sea with opposite momenta and opposite spins (Cooper pair, singlet pairing);
- the interaction is $V = \text{const.}$ if $|\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{q}} - \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}| \leq \hbar\omega_D$ and zero otherwise.

Here “right outside the Fermi sea” means that the energies are, cf. (C 5.27),

$$E_F \leq \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}, \quad \varepsilon_{-\mathbf{k}} \leq E_F + \hbar\omega_D. \quad (44)$$

The interaction thus reads (C 5.28)

$$H_{\text{int}} = -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{\sigma, \sigma'} \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{q}} c_{\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{q}, \sigma}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}-\mathbf{q}, \sigma'}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}, \sigma'} c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma}, \quad \text{with } |\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}+\mathbf{q}} - \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}| \leq \hbar\omega_D. \quad (45)$$

One solves this model by making the variational ansatz (C 5.26)

$$|\psi_{\sigma, \sigma'}\rangle = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} a_{\sigma, \sigma'}(\mathbf{k}) c_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}, \sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (46)$$

and minimizing the energy $E = \langle \psi_{\sigma, \sigma'} | H | \psi_{\sigma, \sigma'} \rangle$ with the constraint that $\langle \psi_{\sigma, \sigma'} | \psi_{\sigma, \sigma'} \rangle \stackrel{!}{=} 1$, which gets us an upper bound for the energy of the bound state. One finds that (C 5.35)

$$\Delta E = 2E_F - E_{\text{bs}} \cong -2\hbar\omega_q e^{-2/(V\rho_0)}, \quad (47)$$

which shows that a bound state (Cooper pair) of the two electrons is energetically favoured compared to the free, non-interacting state. This holds for all electrons close to the Fermi edge and therefore implies an instability of the Fermi sea.

2.1.3 BCS theory

To solve the Hamiltonian and extract the relevant mechanism from it, it is simplified as follows: Only include interactions between electrons with opposite momenta and opposite spins, and neglect the $\mathbf{q}$ -dependence. This yields (C 5.38)

$$H = \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \sigma} \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}\sigma}^\dagger c_{\mathbf{k}\sigma} - V \sum_{\mathbf{k}, \mathbf{k}'} c_{\mathbf{k}'\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}'\downarrow}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}, \quad (48)$$

with again $|\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} - \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}'}| \leq \hbar\omega_D$ for the interaction term. Finally, apply mean-field theory to the pair creation/destruction operators, (C 5.41) and (C 5.42):

$$H_{\text{MF}} = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} \begin{pmatrix} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}^\dagger & c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} \\ c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix} \pm \text{const.}, \quad (49)$$

$$\Delta = V \sum_{\mathbf{k}} \langle c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} \rangle \quad (\text{possibly } \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} \rightsquigarrow \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} - \mu). \quad (50)$$

Bogoliubov transformation. Introduce a unitary transformation that diagonalizes

$$B = \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} \end{pmatrix}$$

and thus leads to an H_{MF} that only includes terms of the form $\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \alpha_{\mathbf{k}}$ and $\beta_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \beta_{\mathbf{k}}$:

$$H_{\text{MF}} = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} \underbrace{\begin{pmatrix} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}^\dagger & c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} U_{\mathbf{k}}}_{\text{new operators}} \underbrace{U_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}} \end{pmatrix} U_{\mathbf{k}}}_{\text{diagonal matrix}} \underbrace{U_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \begin{pmatrix} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} \\ c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix}}_{(\text{new operators})^\dagger}. \quad (51)$$

These new operators will be fermionic, since U is unitary, so that $\langle c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} \rangle \rightsquigarrow f(\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}, \beta_{\mathbf{k}}, \alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger, \beta_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger)$ and one can then use $\langle \alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \alpha_{\mathbf{k}} \rangle = f(E_F)$ and $\langle \beta_{\mathbf{k}} \alpha_{\mathbf{k}} \rangle = 0$ etc. The elements of U can be determined by diagonalizing B and requiring that the eigenvectors are normalized to one.

Result. This yields

$$H_{\text{eff}} = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} E_{\mathbf{k}} (\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \alpha_{\mathbf{k}} + \beta_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \beta_{\mathbf{k}}) + \text{const.}, \quad (\text{C 5.46}) \quad (52)$$

$$E_{\mathbf{k}} = (\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}^2 + |\Delta|^2)^{1/2} \geq 0, \quad (\text{C 5.47}) \quad (53)$$

and for Δ one arrives at the BCS self-consistency equation (C 5.50)

$$\Delta = \frac{V\Delta}{2} \sum_{\mathbf{k}} \frac{1}{E_{\mathbf{k}}} \tanh\left(\frac{\beta E_{\mathbf{k}}}{2}\right). \quad (54)$$

Obviously $\Delta = 0$ is a solution. For $\Delta \neq 0$ one obtains (C 5.51)

$$1 = \frac{V}{2} \sum_{\mathbf{k}, |\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}| < \hbar\omega_D} (\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}^2 + |\Delta|^2)^{-1/2} \tanh\left(\frac{\beta(\varepsilon_{\mathbf{k}}^2 + |\Delta|^2)^{1/2}}{2}\right). \quad (55)$$

Δ as an order parameter. Actually, Δ is an order parameter for the superconducting phase, because of the following:

- For a normal metal $\langle c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} \rangle = 0 \forall \mathbf{k}$ and thus $\Delta = V \sum_{\mathbf{k}} \langle c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} \rangle = 0$.
- But if $\Delta \neq 0$, it means that we are not in a metallic phase and that there are Cooper pairs present.

2.1.4 The BCS ground state

We have $H = \sum_{\mathbf{k}} E_{\mathbf{k}} (\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \alpha_{\mathbf{k}} + \beta_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \beta_{\mathbf{k}})$ with $E_{\mathbf{k}} \geq 0$, cf. eq. (52), where, following (C 5.43),

$$\alpha_{\mathbf{k}} = u_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow} - v_{\mathbf{k}} c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow}^\dagger \quad \text{and} \quad \beta_{\mathbf{k}} = u_{\mathbf{k}} c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow} + v_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}^\dagger. \quad (56)$$

Since $\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^{(\dagger)}$ and $\beta_{\mathbf{k}}^{(\dagger)}$ are fermionic, the eigenvalues of $\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \alpha_{\mathbf{k}}$ (and $\beta_{\mathbf{k}}^\dagger \beta_{\mathbf{k}}$) are 0, 1. Hence the ground state of H does not contain any α or β quasiparticles, i.e.

$$\alpha_{\mathbf{k}}|\text{BCS}\rangle = \beta_{\mathbf{k}}|\text{BCS}\rangle = 0. \quad (57)$$

This is satisfied by

$$|\text{BCS}\rangle = \prod_{\mathbf{k}} (u_{\mathbf{k}} + v_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle = \bigotimes_{\mathbf{k}} (u_{\mathbf{k}} + v_{\mathbf{k}} c_{\mathbf{k}\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-\mathbf{k}\downarrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle_{\mathbf{k}}. \quad (58)$$

2.2 Details

2.2.1 Preface

These are supplementary notes to *Solid State Theory, Volume 2* by Gerd Czycholl. Since the derivations there are quite lengthy, only those steps are presented here that clarify what is done in the corresponding chapters. Numbers in parentheses such as (5.12) refer to equations of that book.

2.2.2 Attractive electron-electron interaction through the electron-phonon mechanism (Czycholl 5.2)

Two small observations.

- (5.12): use that S is linear in H_1 to discard $[[H_1, S], S]$.
- (5.15): use that $\langle m|H_1|m\rangle = 0$, since H_1 changes the number of phonons and thus $H_1|m\rangle \perp |m\rangle$.

The transformed Hamiltonian. Starting from (5.13) and inserting resolutions of the identity,

$$H_T = H_0 + \frac{i}{2} (H_1 S - S H_1) \quad (59)$$

$$= H_0 + \frac{i}{2} \sum_{\tilde{n}, n, m} \left(|\tilde{n}\rangle \langle \tilde{n}| H_1 |m\rangle \langle m| S |n\rangle \langle n| - |\tilde{n}\rangle \langle \tilde{n}| S |m\rangle \langle m| H_1 |n\rangle \langle n| \right) \quad (60)$$

$$\stackrel{(5.15)}{=} H_0 - \frac{1}{2} \sum_{\tilde{n}, n, m} \left(|\tilde{n}\rangle \langle \tilde{n}| H_1 |m\rangle \langle m| H_1 |n\rangle \langle n| \frac{1}{E_m - E_n} - |\tilde{n}\rangle \langle \tilde{n}| H_1 |m\rangle \langle m| H_1 |n\rangle \langle n| \frac{1}{E_{\tilde{n}} - E_m} \right), \quad (61)$$

where the matrix elements $\langle \tilde{n}|H_1|m\rangle$ and $\langle m|H_1|n\rangle$ are scalars and can be pulled out of the operator structure, which yields (5.16).

Restriction to a fixed phonon configuration. Since we want to derive a Hamiltonian for the electron-electron interaction only, we restrict $|\tilde{n}\rangle$ and $|n\rangle$ in (5.16) to states with

the same phonon configuration, such that H_T does not mix states with different phonon configurations.

Let $|n\rangle$ be some many-particle state and assume that it contains one electron in the state $|k, \sigma\rangle$ and one in $|k', \sigma'\rangle$. The two elementary processes are

$$H_{1,1}|k, \sigma\rangle = \sqrt{n_q}|k+q, \sigma, n_q-1\rangle, \quad \text{by destroying a phonon,} \quad (*_1)$$

$$H_{1,2}|k, \sigma\rangle = \sqrt{n_q+1}|k-q, \sigma, n_q+1\rangle, \quad \text{by creating a phonon.} \quad (*_2)$$

Since $|\tilde{n}\rangle$ and $|n\rangle$ are restricted to states with the same phonon number, the created (destroyed) phonon with momentum q has to be destroyed (created) again:

$$H_{1,1}\sqrt{n_q}|k+q, \sigma, n_q-1\rangle = n_q|k+q, \sigma; k'-q, \sigma'; n_q\rangle, \quad (62)$$

$$H_{1,1}\sqrt{n_q+1}|k-q, \sigma, n_q+1\rangle = (n_q+1)|k-q, \sigma; k'+q, \sigma'; n_q\rangle. \quad (63)$$

All other terms vanish, since their phonon configurations differ.

Energy denominators. Therefore we have

$$(*_1): \quad E_m - E_n = \varepsilon_{k+q} - \varepsilon_k - \hbar\omega_q, \quad E_{\tilde{n}} - E_m = \varepsilon_{k'-q} - \varepsilon_{k'} + \hbar\omega_q, \quad (5.19) \quad (64)$$

$$(*_2): \quad E_m - E_n = \varepsilon_{k-q} - \varepsilon_k + \hbar\omega_q, \quad E_{\tilde{n}} - E_m = \varepsilon_{k'+q} - \varepsilon_{k'} - \hbar\omega_q. \quad (5.20) \quad (65)$$

Inserting this into (5.16) gives

$$\begin{aligned} H_T = -\frac{1}{2} \sum_{n, \tilde{n}} |\tilde{n}\rangle \langle n| \sum_m \sum_{\substack{k, k', q \\ \sigma, \sigma'}} \left(\langle \tilde{n} | M(-q) c_{k'-q, \sigma'}^\dagger c_{k', \sigma'} b_q^\dagger | m \rangle \langle m | M(q) c_{k+q, \sigma}^\dagger c_{k, \sigma} b_q | n \rangle \right. \\ \times \left(\frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k+q} - \hbar\omega_q - \varepsilon_k} - \frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k'-q} - \varepsilon_{k'} + \hbar\omega_q} \right) \\ + \langle \tilde{n} | M(q) c_{k'+q, \sigma'}^\dagger c_{k', \sigma'} b_q | m \rangle \langle m | M(-q) c_{k-q, \sigma}^\dagger c_{k, \sigma} b_q^\dagger | n \rangle \\ \left. \times \left(\frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k-q} - \varepsilon_k + \hbar\omega_q} - \frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k'+q} - \varepsilon_{k'} - \hbar\omega_q} \right) \right), \end{aligned} \quad (66)$$

where the first summand is the $(*_1)$ -process and the second one the $(*_2)$ -process.

Using $M^*(q) = M(-q)$ and that all the above terms are independent of n , m , and $\tilde{n}$ yields (5.21). Using furthermore that

$$b_q^\dagger b_q | \dots n_q \dots \rangle = n_q | \dots n_q \dots \rangle, \quad b_q b_q^\dagger | \dots n_q \dots \rangle = (n_q + 1) | \dots n_q \dots \rangle \quad (67)$$

results in (5.21), i.e. $\hat{H}_T(b_q, b_q^\dagger, \dots) \rightsquigarrow \hat{H}_T(n_q, \dots)$ in the phonon number basis.

Combining the two processes. We have

$$\frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k+q} - \hbar\omega_q - \varepsilon_k} = \frac{(\varepsilon_{k+q} - \varepsilon_k) + \hbar\omega_q}{(\varepsilon_{k+q} - \varepsilon_k)^2 - \hbar^2\omega_q^2} \quad (68)$$

and, relabelling $k \leftrightarrow k'$ and $q \rightarrow -q$,

$$\sum_{k,k',q} \frac{1}{\varepsilon_{k'-q} - \varepsilon_{k'} + \hbar\omega_q} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_k c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_{k'} = \sum_{k,k',q} \frac{(\varepsilon_{k+q} - \varepsilon_k) - \hbar\omega_q}{(\varepsilon_{k+q} - \varepsilon_k)^2 - \hbar^2\omega_q^2} c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_{k'} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_k, \quad (69)$$

where

$$\sum_{k,k',q} c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_{k'} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_k = \sum_{k,k',q} c_{k'-q}^\dagger (\delta_{k',k+q} - c_{k+q}^\dagger c_{k'}) c_k \quad (70)$$

$$= \sum_{k,q} c_k^\dagger c_k - \sum_{k,k',q} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_k c_{k'} \quad (71)$$

$$= \sum_{k,q} n_k - \sum_{k,k',q} c_{k+q}^\dagger (\delta_{k,k'-q} - c_k c_{k'-q}^\dagger) c_{k'} \quad (72)$$

$$= \underbrace{\sum_{k,q} n_k - \sum_{k,q} c_{k'}^\dagger c_{k'}}_{=0} + \sum_{k,k',q} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_k c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_{k'} \quad (73)$$

$$= \sum_{k,k',q} c_{k+q}^\dagger c_k c_{k'-q}^\dagger c_{k'}. \quad (74)$$

We know (Bruus & Flensberg, Sec. 3.8) that $\omega_{-q} = \omega_q$ and $M(-q) = M(q)$. Furthermore, since we are only interested in the electronic process, we can assume that there is no net phononic motion within the system and thus $n_q = n_{-q}$. Hence the first term of (5.21) equals the first term of (5.22), analogously for the second term, and similarly (5.22) $\rightsquigarrow$ (5.23).

2.2.3 Cooper pairs (Czycholl 5.3)

Setup. Simplify: look at the Fermi sea plus two electrons just above the Fermi energy, and only let them interact via H_T . The variational ansatz (5.26), for vanishing total pair momentum $K = k + k' \stackrel{!}{=} 0$, is

$$|\psi_{\sigma,\sigma'}\rangle = \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k) c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle, \quad (75)$$

with the sum over k such that $E_F \leq \varepsilon_k, \varepsilon_{k'} \leq E_F + \hbar\omega_D$, cf. (5.27). The simplified interaction acts only outside the Fermi sea (*), otherwise $V = 0$:

$$H_T = -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{\sigma,\sigma'} \sum_{k,q} c_{k+q,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k-q,\sigma'}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma'} c_{k,\sigma}. \quad (5.28) \quad (76)$$

Action on the ansatz.

$$H_T|\psi_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}\rangle = -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{\sigma,\sigma'} \sum_{k,q,k'} c_{k+q,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k-q,\sigma'}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma'} c_{k,\sigma} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k') c_{k',\sigma_1}^\dagger c_{-k',\sigma_2}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (77)$$

$$= -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{\sigma,\sigma'} \sum_{k,q,k'} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k') c_{k+q,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k-q,\sigma'}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma'} c_{k,\sigma} |k', \sigma_1; -k', \sigma_2\rangle \quad (78)$$

$$= -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{\sigma,\sigma'} \sum_{k,q,k'} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k') \left(\delta_{k,k'} \delta_{\sigma,\sigma_1} \delta_{\sigma',\sigma_2} |k+q, \sigma_1; -k-q, \sigma_2\rangle \right. \\ \left. + \delta_{k,-k'} \delta_{\sigma,\sigma_2} \delta_{\sigma',\sigma_1} | -k-q, \sigma_1; k+q, \sigma_2\rangle \right) \quad (79)$$

$$= -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{k,q} \left(a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k) |k+q, \sigma_1; -k-q, \sigma_2\rangle + a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(-k) | -k-q, \sigma_1; k+q, \sigma_2\rangle \right), \quad (80)$$

where the projection onto $|k', \sigma_1; -k', \sigma_2\rangle$ is allowed because, by (*), only states outside the Fermi sea matter for the interaction. Taking the expectation value,

$$\langle\psi_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}|H_T|\psi_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}\rangle = -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{k,q,k'} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}^*(k') \left\{ a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k) \langle k', \sigma_1; -k', \sigma_2 | k+q, \sigma_1; -k-q, \sigma_2 \rangle \right. \\ \left. + a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(-k) \langle k', \sigma_1; -k', \sigma_2 | -k-q, \sigma_1; k+q, \sigma_2 \rangle \right\} \quad (81)$$

$$= -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{k,q,k'} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}^*(k') \left\{ a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k) \delta_{k',k+q} + a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(-k) \delta_{k',-k-q} \right\} \quad (82)$$

$$= -\frac{V}{2} \sum_{k,q} \left(a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}^*(k+q) a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k) + a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}^*(-k-q) a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(-k) \right) \quad (83)$$

$$= -V \sum_{k,q} a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}^*(k+q) a_{\sigma_1\sigma_2}(k), \quad (84)$$

where in the last step $k \rightarrow -k$, $q \rightarrow -q$ was substituted in the second term.

The kinetic part. Furthermore, by (5.17),

$$H_0 = \sum_{k,\sigma} \varepsilon_k n_{k,\sigma} + \sum_q \hbar \omega_q b_q^\dagger b_q. \quad (85)$$

Since the ansatz $|\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}\rangle$ is purely electronic, $\sum_q \hbar\omega_q b_q^\dagger b_q$ will not contribute. Splitting the electronic sum into states inside and outside the Fermi sea,

$$\langle\psi_{\sigma,\sigma'}|H_0|\psi_{\sigma,\sigma'}\rangle = \langle\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}|\left(\sum_{k,\tilde{\sigma}} \varepsilon_k n_{k,\tilde{\sigma}}\right)\left(\sum_{k'} a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k') c_{k',\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k',\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle\right) \quad (86)$$

$$= \langle\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}|\left(\sum_{\substack{k \leq k_F \\ \tilde{\sigma}}} \varepsilon_k \hat{n}_{k,\tilde{\sigma}} + \sum_{\substack{k > k_F \\ \tilde{\sigma}}} \varepsilon_k \hat{n}_{k,\tilde{\sigma}}\right)\left(\sum_{k'} a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k') c_{k',\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k',\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle\right) \quad (87)$$

$$= \langle\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}|\sum_{\substack{k \leq k_F \\ \tilde{\sigma}}} \varepsilon_k n_{k,\tilde{\sigma}} |\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}\rangle + \sum_{k,k'} a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k') (\varepsilon_{k'} \delta_{k,k'} \delta_{\sigma,\tilde{\sigma}} + \varepsilon_{k'} \delta_{k,-k'} \delta_{\sigma',\tilde{\sigma}}) c_{k',\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k',\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (88)$$

$$= \left(\langle\phi_0|\sum_k c_{-k,\sigma'} c_{k,\sigma} a_{\sigma,\sigma'}^*(k)\right) \left(\sum_{\substack{k \leq k_F \\ \tilde{\sigma}}} \varepsilon_k n_{k,\tilde{\sigma}} |\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}\rangle + \sum_{k'} a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k') (\varepsilon_{k'} + \varepsilon_{-k'}) c_{k',\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k',\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle\right) \quad (89)$$

$$= \sum_k |a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k)|^2 \left((\varepsilon_k + \varepsilon_{-k}) + \sum_{\substack{k \leq k_F \\ \tilde{\sigma}}} \varepsilon_k n_{k,\tilde{\sigma}} \right) \quad (90)$$

$$= \sum_k |a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k)|^2 (\varepsilon_k + \varepsilon_{-k}) + c \sum_k |a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k)|^2, \quad (91)$$

where c collects the (constant) energy of the filled Fermi sea. From $\langle\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}|\psi_{\sigma\sigma'}\rangle \stackrel{!}{=} 1$ it follows that $\sum_k |a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k)|^2 \stackrel{!}{=} 1$, cf. (5.29), and therefore

$$H_0 = \sum_k |a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k)|^2 (\varepsilon_k + \varepsilon_{-k}), \quad \implies \quad H = H_0 + H_T = (5.29). \quad (92)$$

The step $\varepsilon_k = \varepsilon_{-k}$ needed for (5.30) is true due to Kramers' theorem; see e.g. Sec. 5.3 of Czycholl I.

When does the gap equation degenerate? For (5.32) it was assumed that $C \equiv \sum_k a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k) \neq 0$. Let us examine when C is actually zero. We have

$$a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k) = \frac{V \sum_{k'} a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k')}{2\varepsilon_k - \lambda}, \quad (5.31) \quad (93)$$

where $\varepsilon_k = \varepsilon_{-k}$ by Kramers' theorem, and hence

$$a_{\sigma\sigma'}(-k) = a_{\sigma\sigma'}(k). \quad (*)$$

Moreover, for equal spins,

$$|\psi_{\sigma\sigma}\rangle = \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma}(k) c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (94)$$

$$= \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma}(k) (\delta_{k,-k} - c_{-k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger) |\phi_0\rangle \quad (95)$$

$$= - \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma}(k) c_{-k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (96)$$

$$= - \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma}(-k) c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle \quad (97)$$

$$= - \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma}(k) c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle = -|\psi_{\sigma\sigma}\rangle. \quad (98)$$

Here $\delta_{k,-k}$ drops out because $\sum_k$ does not include momenta inside the Fermi sea and thus $k \neq 0$; in the fourth line $k \rightarrow -k$ was substituted, and in the fifth line (*) was used. Consequently

$$\langle \psi_{\sigma\sigma} | \psi_{\sigma\sigma} \rangle = -\langle \psi_{\sigma\sigma} | \psi_{\sigma\sigma} \rangle \implies \langle \psi_{\sigma\sigma} | \psi_{\sigma\sigma} \rangle = 0 \implies \sum_k |a_{\sigma\sigma}(k)|^2 = 0 \implies a_{\sigma\sigma}(k) = 0, \quad (99)$$

so $\sum_k a_{\sigma\sigma}(k) = 0$. Thus $\sigma = \sigma'$ yields $C = 0$, cf. (5.35), and Cooper pairs consist of electrons with opposite spins.

Note that if $\psi(r_1 - r_2)$ is antisymmetric, then $\psi(0) = 0$ and $C = 0$ as well, so the derivation of (5.35) is different in that case.

Position representation. Project the state $|\psi_{\sigma,\sigma'}\rangle = \sum_k a_{\sigma,\sigma'}(k) c_{k,\sigma}^\dagger c_{-k,\sigma'}^\dagger |\phi_0\rangle$ onto the position basis. Since H acts trivially on the spin space ($\sigma \rightarrow \sigma, \sigma' \rightarrow \sigma'$), one can factorize the wave function:

$$\langle \mathbf{r}_1, \mathbf{r}_2 | \psi_{\sigma,\sigma'} \rangle = \psi_{\sigma,\sigma'}(\mathbf{r}_1, \mathbf{r}_2) = \psi(\mathbf{r}_1, \mathbf{r}_2) \chi(\sigma, \sigma'), \quad (5.37) \quad (100)$$

with

$$\psi(\mathbf{r}_1, \mathbf{r}_2) = \frac{1}{V} \sum_k a(k) e^{i\mathbf{k}\cdot\mathbf{r}_1} e^{-i\mathbf{k}\cdot\mathbf{r}_2} = \psi(\mathbf{r}_1 - \mathbf{r}_2), \quad (5.36) \quad (101)$$

using $\langle \mathbf{r} | \mathbf{k} \rangle = \frac{1}{\sqrt{V}} e^{i\mathbf{k}\cdot\mathbf{r}}$.

2.2.4 BCS theory (Czycholl 5.4)

Mean-field recap. Write $\hat{n}_\alpha = \langle n_\alpha \rangle + \delta\hat{n}_\alpha$ and assume that $\delta\hat{n}_\alpha$ is small, such that second-order fluctuations can be dropped:

$$\hat{n}_\alpha \hat{n}_\beta = (\langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle + \delta\hat{n}_\alpha) (\langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle + \delta\hat{n}_\beta) \quad (102)$$

$$\stackrel{\delta\hat{n}_\alpha \delta\hat{n}_\beta \approx 0}{=} \langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle \langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle + \langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle (\hat{n}_\beta - \langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle) + \langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle (\hat{n}_\alpha - \langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle) \quad (103)$$

$$= \langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle \hat{n}_\beta + \langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle \hat{n}_\alpha - \langle \hat{n}_\alpha \rangle \langle \hat{n}_\beta \rangle. \quad (104)$$

Now apply this to $c_{-k\downarrow}^{(\dagger)} c_{k\uparrow}^{(\dagger)}$ instead of $\hat{n}_\alpha$ to derive a mean-field version of the BCS Hamiltonian, which gives (5.40).

Nambu form of the effective Hamiltonian. Rewrite H_{eff} as (following Becca & Sorella, and the Superconductivity IMPRS UFAST 2017 course of Michael Sentef)

$$\tilde{H}_{\text{eff}} = \sum_k \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger & c_{-k\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow} \\ c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix} \quad (105)$$

$$= \sum_k \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger & c_{-k\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k c_{k\uparrow} - \Delta c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger \\ -\Delta^* c_{k\uparrow} - \varepsilon_k c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix} \quad (106)$$

$$= \sum_k \varepsilon_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{k\uparrow} - \Delta c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger - \Delta^* c_{-k\downarrow} c_{k\uparrow} - \varepsilon_k \underbrace{c_{-k\downarrow} c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger}_{=1-c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}} \quad (107)$$

$$= \sum_{k,\sigma} \varepsilon_k c_{k\sigma}^\dagger c_{k\sigma} - \Delta^* \sum_k c_{-k\downarrow} c_{k\uparrow} - \Delta \sum_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger - \sum_k \varepsilon_k \quad (108)$$

$$= \underbrace{H_{\text{eff}} - \frac{|\Delta|^2}{V} - \sum_k \varepsilon_k}_{\text{const.}} \quad (5.41) \quad (109)$$

Set $M \equiv \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k \end{pmatrix}$ and diagonalize it, such that H_{eff} becomes diagonal — this is a unitary transformation.

Diagonalizing the 2×2 matrix M . Eigenvalues:

$$\det \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k - \lambda & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k - \lambda \end{pmatrix} = -(\varepsilon_k - \lambda)(\varepsilon_k + \lambda) - |\Delta|^2 \quad (110)$$

$$= -(\lambda^2 - \varepsilon_k^2 - |\Delta|^2) \stackrel{!}{=} 0 \quad (111)$$

$$\implies \lambda_{1,2} = \pm \sqrt{\varepsilon_k^2 + |\Delta|^2} \equiv E_k^\pm \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (*_1)$$

Eigenvectors: from

$$\begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k - E_k^\pm & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k - E_k^\pm \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} x_\pm \\ y_\pm \end{pmatrix} \stackrel{!}{=} 0 \quad (112)$$

the first row (I) gives

$$(\varepsilon_k - E_k^\pm) x_\pm - \Delta y_\pm = 0 \iff y_\pm = \frac{\varepsilon_k - E_k^\pm}{\Delta} x_\pm, \quad (\text{I}') \quad (113)$$

while the second row (II) gives, using (I') and $(E_k^\pm)^2 = \varepsilon_k^2 + |\Delta|^2$,

$$\Delta^* x_\pm + (\varepsilon_k + E_k^\pm) y_\pm \stackrel{(\text{I}')}{=} \left(\Delta^* + \frac{\varepsilon_k^2 - (E_k^\pm)^2}{\Delta} \right) x_\pm = 0, \quad (113)$$

i.e. it is satisfied identically. Hence $x_\pm$ can be chosen arbitrarily. $(\odot)$

Normalization. Requiring $|x_{\pm}|^2 + |y_{\pm}|^2 \stackrel{!}{=} 1$ and using (I'),

$$|x_{\pm}|^2 \left(1 + \frac{(\varepsilon_k - E_k^{\pm})^2}{|\Delta|^2} \right) = |x_{\pm}|^2 \frac{|\Delta|^2 + (\varepsilon_k - E_k^{\pm})^2}{|\Delta|^2} \stackrel{!}{=} 1, \quad (114)$$

where

$$(\varepsilon_k - E_k^{\pm})^2 = \varepsilon_k^2 - 2\varepsilon_k E_k^{\pm} + (E_k^{\pm})^2 \quad (115)$$

$$= \varepsilon_k^2 - 2\varepsilon_k E_k^{\pm} + \varepsilon_k^2 + |\Delta|^2 \quad (116)$$

$$= 2\varepsilon_k^2 - 2\varepsilon_k E_k^{\pm} + |\Delta|^2. \quad (117)$$

Therefore

$$|x_{\pm}|^2 = \frac{|\Delta|^2}{2(\varepsilon_k^2 - \varepsilon_k E_k^{\pm} + |\Delta|^2)} \stackrel{(*)}{=} \frac{1}{2} \frac{|\Delta|^2}{(E_k^{\pm})^2 - \varepsilon_k E_k^{\pm}} \stackrel{(*)}{=} \frac{1}{2} \frac{(E_k^{\pm})^2 - \varepsilon_k^2}{E_k^{\pm}(E_k^{\pm} - \varepsilon_k)} \quad (118)$$

$$= \frac{1}{2} \frac{E_k^{\pm} + \varepsilon_k}{E_k^{\pm}} = \frac{1}{2} \left(1 + \frac{\varepsilon_k}{E_k^{\pm}} \right) = \frac{1}{2} \left(1 \pm \frac{\varepsilon_k}{E_k} \right), \quad (119)$$

$$|y_{\pm}|^2 = 1 - |x_{\pm}|^2 = \frac{1}{2} \left(1 - \frac{\varepsilon_k}{E_k^{\pm}} \right) = \frac{1}{2} \left(1 \mp \frac{\varepsilon_k}{E_k} \right). \quad (A)$$

Fixing the free phase. Choose $x_{\pm}$ to be some real value, which is allowed by ($\odot$). Then (A) gives $x_{\pm}^2 = y_{\mp}^2$, i.e. $x_{\pm} = \pm y_{\mp}$, which is still too many solutions. Set

$$x_+ = y_- \equiv u_k, \quad x_- = -y_+ \equiv v_k. \quad (120)$$

Since $M_k^{\dagger} = M_k$, we know that M_k can be diagonalized by a unitary U_k :

$$M = \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k \end{pmatrix} = U_k^{\dagger} \begin{pmatrix} E_k^+ & 0 \\ 0 & E_k^- \end{pmatrix} U_k, \quad U_k = \begin{pmatrix} x^+ & x^- \\ y^+ & y^- \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} u_k & v_k \\ -v_k & u_k \end{pmatrix}, \quad (121)$$

which is obviously unitary.

The Bogoliubov transformation. Inserting this into the Hamiltonian yields

$$\tilde{H}_{\text{eff}} = \sum_k \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow}^{\dagger} & c_{-k\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} U_k U_k^{\dagger} \begin{pmatrix} \varepsilon_k & -\Delta \\ -\Delta^* & -\varepsilon_k \end{pmatrix} U_k U_k^{\dagger} \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow} \\ c_{-k\downarrow}^{\dagger} \end{pmatrix} - \sum_k \varepsilon_k \quad (122)$$

$$= \sum_k \begin{pmatrix} \alpha_k^{\dagger} & \beta_k \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} E_k^+ & 0 \\ 0 & E_k^- \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \alpha_k \\ \beta_k^{\dagger} \end{pmatrix} - \sum_k \varepsilon_k \quad (123)$$

$$= \sum_k E_k^+ \alpha_k^{\dagger} \alpha_k + E_k^- \beta_k \beta_k^{\dagger} - \sum_k \varepsilon_k \quad (124)$$

$$= \sum_k E_k^+ (\alpha_k^{\dagger} \alpha_k + \beta_k^{\dagger} \beta_k) - \underbrace{\sum_k (\varepsilon_k + E_k^+)}_{\text{const.}}, \quad \sim (5.46) \quad (125)$$

where $\{\beta_k, \beta_k^\dagger\} = 1$ and $E_k^- = -E_k^+$ were used, and with $\begin{pmatrix} \alpha_k \\ \beta_k^\dagger \end{pmatrix} = U_k^\dagger \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow} \\ c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix}$. Here U_k is known as the Bogoliubov transformation, with the corresponding Bogoliubov quasiparticles

$$\alpha_k = u_k c_{k\uparrow} - v_k c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger, \quad (126)$$

$$\beta_k = u_k c_{-k\downarrow} + v_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger, \quad (127)$$

which reproduces (5.43)–(5.47). They obey the usual fermionic anticommutation relations, as can be seen as follows (for arbitrary unitary transformations).

Nambu spinors and the anticommutation relations. Define

$$\psi_k = \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow} \\ c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger \end{pmatrix}, \quad \psi_k^\dagger = \begin{pmatrix} c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger & c_{-k\downarrow} \end{pmatrix} \quad (\text{Nambu spinors}), \quad (128)$$

with $\{\psi_{k,i}, \psi_{k,j}^\dagger\} = \psi_{k,i} \psi_{k,j}^\dagger + \psi_{k,j}^\dagger \psi_{k,i} = \delta_{ij}$. The Bogoliubov transformation can then be written as

$$\Gamma_k \equiv \begin{pmatrix} \alpha_k \\ \beta_k^\dagger \end{pmatrix} = U^\dagger \psi_k, \quad \Gamma_k^\dagger \equiv \psi_k^\dagger U, \quad (129)$$

so that, using bilinearity of $\{\cdot, \cdot\}$ and that the $U_{\alpha\beta}^{(\dagger)}$ are numbers,

$$\{\Gamma_{k,i}, \Gamma_{k,j}^\dagger\} = \left\{ \sum_\ell U_{i,\ell}^\dagger \psi_{k,\ell}, \sum_m \psi_{k,m}^\dagger U_{m,j} \right\} \quad (130)$$

$$= \sum_{\ell,m} U_{i,\ell}^\dagger \{\psi_{k,\ell}, \psi_{k,m}^\dagger\} U_{m,j} \quad (131)$$

$$= \sum_\ell U_{i,\ell}^\dagger U_{\ell,j} = (U^\dagger U)_{ij} = \delta_{ij}. \quad (132)$$

Since U is unitary, α_k and β_k are fermionic operators.

Coherence factors. With (5.45),

$$(u_k v_k)^2 = \frac{1}{4} \left(1 - \frac{\varepsilon_k^2}{(E_k^+)^2} \right) = \frac{1}{4} \left(\frac{\varepsilon_k^2 + |\Delta|^2 - \varepsilon_k^2}{\varepsilon_k^2 + |\Delta|^2} \right) \quad (133)$$

$$= \frac{1}{4} \frac{|\Delta|^2}{(E_k^+)^2} \implies u_k v_k = \pm \frac{1}{2} \frac{|\Delta|}{E_k^+}, \quad (134)$$

from which the rest follows, i.e. (5.51), where the negative solution leads to the contradiction $1 = \text{negative value}$.

The BCS ground state. Since α_k is fermionic, $n_{\alpha,k}^2 \equiv (\alpha_k^\dagger \alpha_k)^2 = \alpha_k^\dagger \alpha_k$, and thus any eigenvalue λ of $n_{\alpha,k}$ must satisfy $\lambda^2 = \lambda$, i.e. $\lambda \in \{0, 1\}$ (and the same for $n_{\beta,k}$). Since $E_k^+ \geq 0$, it follows that if $\alpha_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = \beta_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = 0$, then $|\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle$ is the ground state of $H_{\text{eff}} = \sum_k E_k^+ (\alpha_k^\dagger \alpha_k + \beta_k^\dagger \beta_k)$.

The pairing ansatz. Following Becca & Sorella (1.91),

$$|\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = \exp\left(\sum_k f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger\right)|0\rangle \quad (135)$$

$$= \prod_k \exp(f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger)|0\rangle \quad (136)$$

$$= \prod_k \left[\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f_k^n}{n!} (c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger)^n (c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger)^n \right] |0\rangle, \quad \text{where } (c_\alpha^\dagger)^2 |0\rangle = 0, \quad (137)$$

$$= \prod_k (1 + f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle \quad (138)$$

$$= \bigotimes_k \left(|0\rangle_k + f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k \right), \quad (139)$$

with the one-momentum vacuum $|0\rangle_k$ defined by $|0\rangle = \bigotimes_k |0\rangle_k$ and $c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k = c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k = 0$. Thus this ansatz is a pure product state, $|\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = \bigotimes_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle_k$, and therefore

$$\alpha_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = \alpha_k \bigotimes_{k'} |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle_{k'} = |\psi\rangle_{k_1} \otimes \cdots \otimes \alpha_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle_k \otimes \cdots \quad (140)$$

so that only a single momentum sector has to be examined:

$$\alpha_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle_k = (u_k c_{k\uparrow} - v_k c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger) \left(|0\rangle_k + f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k \right) \quad (141)$$

$$= (u_k f_k c_{k\uparrow} c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger - v_k c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle_k \stackrel{!}{=} 0 \quad (142)$$

$$\Longleftrightarrow v_k c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k = u_k f_k (1 - c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{k\uparrow}) c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k \quad (143)$$

$$= u_k f_k \left(c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger + c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger \underbrace{c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger c_{k\uparrow}}_{=0} \right) |0\rangle_k, \quad (144)$$

where $c_\alpha |0\rangle = 0$ and $c_\alpha^\dagger c_\alpha^\dagger |0\rangle = 0$ were used. Since $u_k \neq 0$ this gives $f_k = v_k/u_k$, and similarly

$$\beta_k |\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle_k = (u_k f_k c_{-k\downarrow} c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger + v_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle_k \stackrel{!}{=} 0 \quad (145)$$

$$\Longleftrightarrow v_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger |0\rangle_k = u_k f_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger (1 - c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}) |0\rangle_k, \quad (146)$$

again yielding $f_k = v_k/u_k$.

Therefore $|\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle$ is indeed the ground state of the mean-field Hamiltonian, and it behaves like the vacuum of the Bogoliubons. To avoid problems due to $u_k = 0$, one often writes instead

$$|\psi_{\text{BCS}}\rangle = \prod_k (u_k + v_k c_{k\uparrow}^\dagger c_{-k\downarrow}^\dagger) |0\rangle. \quad (147)$$

2.3 References

- G. Czycholl, *Solid State Theory*, Volume 2 (and Sec. 5.3 of Volume 1 for Kramers' theorem).

- H. Bruus & K. Flensberg, *Many-Body Quantum Theory in Condensed Matter Physics*, Sec. 3.8.
- F. Becca & S. Sorella, *Quantum Monte Carlo Approaches for Correlated Systems*, Eq. (1.91).
- M. Sentef, *Superconductivity*, IMPRS UFAST 2017 course.

3 Similarity transformations of operators: computing $e^A B e^{-A}$

3.1 Motivation

Similarity transformations $B \mapsto e^A B e^{-A}$ are ubiquitous whenever a Hamiltonian is brought to a simpler (often diagonal) form: Bogoliubov transformations of quadratic Hamiltonians, displacement/squeezing of bosonic modes, polaron (Lang-Firsov) transformations, Schrieffer-Wolff transformations, and passage to the interaction picture or a rotating frame are all instances of this construction. If $A^\dagger = -A$ (generator anti-Hermitian), $U = e^A$ is unitary and the transformation preserves Hermiticity and spectra. This is the case in all examples below.

3.2 Method A: The Hadamard lemma

Hadamard Lemma. *For any two operators A, B ,*

$$e^A B e^{-A} = \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{1}{n!} \text{ad}_A^n(B), \quad \text{with} \quad (148)$$

$$\text{ad}_A^n(B) \equiv [A, B]_n \equiv [A, [A, B]_{n-1}], \quad \text{ad}_A^0(B) \equiv [A, B]. \quad (149)$$

This series is especially helpful whenever the nested commutator yields zero at for a finite n or if the nested commutators eventually reproduce a small, recognizable pattern.

Strategy 1: Reduce to elementary operators. Utilize that for any A, X, Y ,

$$e^A (XY) e^{-A} = (e^A X e^{-A}) (e^A Y e^{-A}). \quad (150)$$

It thus suffices to compute $e^A a e^{-A}$ and $e^A a^\dagger e^{-A}$ once and any polynomial in these follows by substitution and normal-ordering, with no further Hadamard series needed.

Strategy 2: The dagger shortcut. If $A^\dagger = -A$, $U = e^A$ is unitary with $U^\dagger = e^{-A} = U^{-1}$, so $e^A B e^{-A} = U B U^\dagger$. Therefore, taking the dagger simply yields

$$(e^A B e^{-A})^\dagger = e^A B^\dagger e^{-A}. \quad (151)$$

Once $e^A a e^{-A}$ is known, $e^A a^\dagger e^{-A}$ follows for free by Hermitian conjugation, roughly halving the bookkeeping.

3.3 Method B: The generator flow method (not proof read since not used yet)

Define $X(\theta) \equiv e^{\theta A} X e^{-\theta A}$, $X(0) = X$. Differentiating,

$$\frac{dX(\theta)}{d\theta} = [A, X(\theta)] = \text{ad}_A(X(\theta)). \quad (152)$$

This ordinary differential equation (ODE) is exactly equivalent to Method A – the Hadamard series is its formal Taylor solution around $\theta = 0$ – but is can be more tractable in practice.

Key fact: closure $\Rightarrow$ finite-dimensional linear ODE. If ad_A maps a finite set of operators $\{X_1, \dots, X_n\}$ into linear combinations of themselves, the operator ODE collapses to a matrix ODE:

$$\frac{d}{d\theta} \mathbf{X}(\theta) = M \mathbf{X}(\theta), \quad [A, X_j] = \sum_i M_{ij} X_i, \quad \mathbf{X}(\theta) = e^{\theta M} \mathbf{X}(0), \quad (153)$$

reducing the problem to exponentiating an ordinary $n \times n$ matrix.

3.4 When to prefer which method

Both methods are mathematically identical. Method A is fast when the pattern is recognizable by eye; Method B is more systematic for anything beyond the simplest single-operator case, especially with mixed or multiple generators to track jointly.

3.5 Scope: when this machinery fails

The closure property requires A to be at most quadratic in a set of canonically (anti-) commuting operators. For a genuinely quartic operator such as $H_{\text{int}} = U \sum_i (n_i - \frac{1}{2})(n_{i+1} - \frac{1}{2})$, $\text{ad}_A(H_{\text{int}})$ does not close on a finite set for generic one-body A (e.g. $A \propto J$ or $A \propto T$) – $[J, H_{\text{int}}]$ is generically nonzero and does not reduce to a small closed set of operators. The Hadamard series then cannot be resummed in closed form; one is limited to a perturbative treatment in the strength of A .

3.6 References

- J.J. Sakurai & J. Napolitano, *Modern Quantum Mechanics*.
- C. Gerry & P. Knight, *Introductory Quantum Optics*.
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- J.-P. Blaizot & G. Ripka, *Quantum Theory of Finite Systems*, MIT Press.
- A. Perelomov, *Generalized Coherent States and Their Applications*, Springer.
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- B.C. Hall, *Lie Groups, Lie Algebras, and Representations*.

4 Group theory

The following sections are part of the book *Mathematical methods for physicists* by G. Arfken and H. Weber, chapter 4 and were taken literally word by word. The book goes more into detail on certain points so consider reading the book directly. All information that was added in this section originates from Wikipedia.

4.1 Definition of a Group

A group G may be defined as a set of objects or operations, rotations, transformations, called the elements of G , that may be combined, or “multiplied,” to form a well-defined product in G , denoted by a $*$, that satisfies the following four conditions.

1. If a and b are any two elements of G , then the product $a * b$ is also an element of G , where b acts before a ; or $(a, b) \rightarrow a * b$ associates (or maps) an element $a * b$ of G with the pair (a, b) of elements of G . This property is known as “ G is closed under multiplication of its own elements.”⁴
2. This multiplication is associative: $(a * b) * c = a * (b * c)$.
3. There is a unit element 1 in G such that $1 * a = a * 1 = a$ for every element a in G . The unit is unique: $1 = 1' * 1 = 1'$.
4. There is an inverse, or reciprocal, of each element a of G , labeled a^{-1} , such that $a * a^{-1} = a^{-1} * a = 1$. The inverse is unique: If a^{-1} and a'^{-1} are both inverses of a , then $a'^{-1} = a'^{-1} * (a * a'^{-1}) = (a'^{-1} * a) * a^{-1} = a^{-1}$.

Since the $*$ for multiplication is tedious to write, it is customary to drop it and simply let it be understood. From now on, we write ab instead of $a * b$.

- If a subset G' of G is closed under multiplication, it is a group and called a **subgroup** of G ; that is, G' is closed under the multiplication of G . The unit of G always forms a subgroup of G .
- If $gg'g^{-1}$ is an element of G' for any g of G and g' of G' , then G' is called an **invariant subgroup** of G . The subgroup consisting of the unit is invariant. If the group elements are square matrices, then $gg'g^{-1}$ corresponds to a similarity transformation (see section 3).
- If $ab = ba$ for all a, b of G , the group is called **commutative** or **abelian**, that is, the order in products does not matter; commutative multiplication is often denoted by a $+$ sign. Examples are vector spaces whose unit is the zero vector and $-a$ is the inverse of a for all elements a in G .

Another few useful definitions (taken from Wikipedia) are as follows.

- A group G is called **cyclic**, if it can be generated by repeated application of one of its elements, i.e. $G = \{g^n \mid n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$ with $g \in G$.

⁴This means that the group operation is defined as $*$: $G \times G \rightarrow G$ with $(a, b) \mapsto a * b$.

- The **order** of a group G denotes the number of elements $|G|$ of the group.
- A **generating set of a group** is a subset of the group set such that every element of the group can be expressed as a combination (under the group operation) of finitely many elements of the subset and their inverses.
- The element g of a cyclic group $G = \{g^n \mid n \in \mathbb{Z}\}$ is the **generator** of that group.

4.2 Homomorphism and isomorphism

There may be a correspondence between the elements of two groups: one-to-one, two-to-one, or many-to-one. If this correspondence preserves the group multiplication, we say that the two groups are **homomorphic**. If the correspondence is one-to-one, still preserving the group multiplication,⁵ then the groups are **isomorphic**.

If a group G is homomorphic to a group of matrices G' , then G' is called a **representation** of G . If G and G' are isomorphic, the representation is called **faithful**. There are many representations of groups; they are not unique.

Example: Rotations The set of counterclockwise coordinate rotations of three-dimensional Euclidean space about its z -axis is an example of a group. If the z -axis is fixed, the linear transformation is defined through an angle φ of the xy -coordinate system to a new orientation⁶. One can write these rotations for example with matrices $R_z(\varphi)$ as

$$\begin{pmatrix} x' \\ y' \\ z' \end{pmatrix} = R_z(\varphi) \begin{pmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \cos \varphi & \sin \varphi & 0 \\ -\sin \varphi & \cos \varphi & 0 \\ 0 & 0 & 1 \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} x \\ y \\ z \end{pmatrix}. \quad (154)$$

One can easily show, that $R_z(\varphi_1)R_z(\varphi_2) = R_z(\varphi_1 + \varphi_2)$ and thereby see, that the matrices $R_z(\varphi)$ are a representation of the group of rotations. This group of rotation matrices is **abelian**, since the angles of successive rotations simply get added up. Striking off the coordinate vectors in eq. (154), we can associate the matrix of the linear transformation with each rotation, which is a group multiplication preserving one-to-one mapping, an isomorphism: The matrices form a faithful representation of the rotation group.

The unity with angle $\varphi = 0$ and the rotation with $\varphi = \pi$ form a finite subgroup. The finite subgroups with angles $2\pi m/n$, n an integer and $m = 0, 1, \dots, n-1$ are **cyclic**; that is, the rotations $R(2\pi m/n) = R(2\pi/n)^m$ and thus $R(2\pi/n)$ is the generator of the finite subgroup.

Example: Permutations

⁵Suppose the elements of one group are labeled g_i , the elements of the second group h_i . Then $g_i \leftrightarrow h_i$ is a one-to-one correspondence for all values of i . If $g_i g_j = g_k$ and $h_i h_j = h_k$, then g_k and h_k must be the corresponding group elements.

⁶Applying two arbitrary rotations by φ_1 and φ_2 successively yields one rotation by $\varphi_1 + \varphi_2$. Thus, the group of rotations is actually closed under multiplication of its own elements. Furthermore, the inverse of φ is simply $\varphi^{-1} = -\varphi$ and the unit $\mathbb{1}$ is given by the rotation with angle $\varphi = 0$.

4.3 Reducible and irreducible representations

Representation: Some other way of describing the same group. Example: matrix representation as shown for rotations in $3d$ space around a fixed axis can be written with matrices.
→ important in physics since many things are represented as vectors.

5 The tensor product and the Kronecker product as one of its possible representations

5.1 The tensor product of vector spaces

Let $\underline{v} = \{v_i \mid i \in I\}$ and $\underline{w} = \{w_j \mid j \in J\}$ be bases for V and W . Then $V \otimes W$ is the product space, where there exists a basis which can be identified uniquely with the pairs of the cartesian product

$$\underline{v} \times \underline{w} = \{(v_i, w_j) \mid i \in I, j \in J\}, \quad (155)$$

so that

$$\dim(V \otimes W) = \dim V \cdot \dim W. \quad (156)$$

Since $V \otimes W$ is a vector space, an arbitrary element of it can be written as

$$\sum_{(i,j) \in I \times J} c_{ij} (v_i \otimes w_j). \quad (157)$$

The bilinear map $\otimes$ is defined by

$$\otimes: V \times W \longrightarrow V \otimes W, \quad (158)$$

$$(v, w) \longmapsto v \otimes w = \sum_{(i,j) \in I \times J} a_i b_j (v_i \otimes w_j), \quad (159)$$

for $v = \sum_i a_i v_i$ and $w = \sum_j b_j w_j$. As a check of bilinearity, writing $v' = \sum_i a'_i v_i$ and $v'' = \sum_i a''_i v_i$,

$$\begin{aligned} (v' + v'') \otimes w &= \left(\sum_i a'_i v_i + \sum_i a''_i v_i \right) \otimes w = \left(\sum_i (a'_i + a''_i) v_i \right) \otimes w \\ &= \sum_{i,j} (a'_i + a''_i) b_j (v_i \otimes w_j) \\ &= \sum_{i,j} a'_i b_j (v_i \otimes w_j) + \sum_{i,j} a''_i b_j (v_i \otimes w_j) \\ &= v' \otimes w + v'' \otimes w, \end{aligned} \quad (160)$$

and analogously in the second argument.

5.2 The tensor product of operators

Introduce operators $A: V \rightarrow V$ and $B: W \rightarrow W$ with V, W vector spaces. How is $A \otimes B: V \otimes W \rightarrow V \otimes W$ given? Define a map $\beta: V \times W \rightarrow V \otimes W$, $\beta(v, w) := Av \otimes Bw$. It is bilinear, e.g.

$$\begin{aligned} \beta(v_1 + v_2, w) &= A(v_1 + v_2) \otimes Bw = (Av_1 + Av_2) \otimes Bw \\ &\stackrel{\otimes \text{ bilin.}}{=} Av_1 \otimes Bw + Av_2 \otimes Bw = \beta(v_1, w) + \beta(v_2, w), \end{aligned} \quad (161)$$

and analogously in the second argument. By the universal property there exists a unique linear $\tilde{\beta}$ with $\tilde{\beta}(v \otimes w) := \beta(v, w)$, so that

$$(A \otimes B)(v \otimes w) = Av \otimes Bw. \quad (162)$$

5.3 The Kronecker product as a matrix representation

Let $V = K^m$ and $W = K^n$ and identify (this is *not* a unique representation!) $K^m \times K^n \rightarrow K^{(m \cdot n)}$ with the Kronecker product, i.e. for

$$v = \begin{pmatrix} a_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_m \end{pmatrix} \quad \& \quad w = \begin{pmatrix} b_1 \\ \vdots \\ b_n \end{pmatrix} \quad \text{set} \quad v \otimes w := \begin{pmatrix} a_1 w \\ \vdots \\ a_m w \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} a_1 b_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_1 b_n \\ \vdots \\ a_m b_1 \\ \vdots \\ a_m b_n \end{pmatrix}. \quad (163)$$

Now choose $\{v_i\}$ to be the standard basis, so that $Av_i = A_{\cdot i}$ (the i -th column of A) and likewise for B . Then

$$\begin{aligned} (A \otimes B)(v_i \otimes v_j) &= (Av_i) \otimes (Bv_j) \stackrel{\text{std. basis}}{=} A_{\cdot i} \otimes B_{\cdot j} \\ &= \begin{pmatrix} A_{1i} B_{\cdot j} \\ \vdots \\ A_{mi} B_{\cdot j} \end{pmatrix} = \begin{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} A_{1i} B_{1j} \\ \vdots \\ A_{1i} B_{nj} \end{pmatrix} \\ \vdots \\ \begin{pmatrix} A_{mi} B_{1j} \\ \vdots \\ A_{mi} B_{nj} \end{pmatrix} \end{pmatrix}. \end{aligned} \quad (164)$$

Setting $v_i \otimes v_j \equiv w_k$ with $k = j + n i$ (for zero-based i), the matrix of $A \otimes B$ is the block matrix

$$\begin{aligned} A \otimes B &= \begin{pmatrix} A_{11} B_{\cdot 1} & \cdots & A_{11} B_{\cdot n} & \cdots & A_{1m} B_{\cdot 1} & \cdots & A_{1m} B_{\cdot n} \\ \vdots & & & & & & \vdots \\ A_{m1} B_{\cdot 1} & \cdots & A_{m1} B_{\cdot n} & \cdots & A_{mm} B_{\cdot 1} & \cdots & A_{mm} B_{\cdot n} \end{pmatrix} \\ &= \begin{pmatrix} A_{11} B & \cdots & A_{1m} B \\ \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ A_{m1} B & \cdots & A_{mm} B \end{pmatrix}, \end{aligned} \quad (165)$$

which is the Kronecker product for matrices.

5.4 References

- *Tensorprodukt* and *Kronecker-Produkt*, German Wikipedia.

6 The Jordan–Wigner mapping for spinless Fermions

6.1 Summary

The Jordan–Wigner transformation (JWT) can be used to map a fermionic system to a system of spins. This is essentially done by rewriting

$$\text{fermion} = \text{string} \times \text{operator},$$

where the “string” is some product of operators $\hat{Z}_i = 1 - 2\hat{n}_i$ and the “operator” is found to obey spin commutation relations.

As references I used

- *Fermions and Jordan–Wigner String* – ITensor C++ Documentation,
- *Introduction to Many-Body Physics*, Chapter 4.1 – Piers Coleman,
- *The Fermionic canonical commutation relations and the Jordan–Wigner transform* – M. Nielsen,

which I supplemented with some calculations and my own way of structuring things.

6.2 Setup: the fermionic Hilbert space

Our fermionic Hilbert space is defined by (Nielsen):

- operators $c_1, \dots, c_L$ acting on some Hilbert space;
- these operators satisfying the canonical (anti-)commutation relations for fermions

$$\{c_i^{(+)}, c_j^{(+)}\} = 0 \quad \& \quad \{c_i, c_j^\dagger\} = \delta_{ij} \mathbb{1}. \quad (166)$$

Many things directly follow from this, such as a possible basis for the Hilbert space, namely the occupation number basis

$$|\mathbf{n}\rangle = |n_1, n_2, \dots, n_L\rangle \equiv \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (c_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) |0\rangle, \quad (167)$$

where $\hat{n}_i |\mathbf{n}\rangle = c_i^\dagger c_i |\mathbf{n}\rangle = n_i |\mathbf{n}\rangle$ with $n_i = 0, 1$ and

$$[\hat{n}_i, \hat{n}_j] = 0. \quad (168)$$

6.3 The transformation

The JWT introduces new operators a_j by writing

$$c_j \equiv \left(\prod_{i=1}^{j-1} Z_i \right) a_j \quad \& \quad c_j^\dagger \equiv a_j^\dagger \left(\prod_{i=1}^{j-1} Z_i \right), \quad (169)$$

with $Z_j = (-1)^{n_j} = 1 - 2n_j$ and $n_j = c_j^\dagger c_j$. The ordering of the Z_i does not matter since $[Z_i, Z_j] = 0$ due to eq. (168). Inverting eq. (169) using $Z_i^2 = \mathbb{1}$ and $[Z_i, Z_j] = 0$ yields

$$a_j = \left(\prod_{i=1}^{j-1} Z_i \right) c_j \quad \& \quad a_j^\dagger = c_j^\dagger \left(\prod_{i=1}^{j-1} Z_i \right). \quad (170)$$

6.4 Algebra of the new operators

One can show that these new operators obey

$$[a_i^{(+)}, a_j^{(+)}] = 0 \quad \forall i, j, \quad (171)$$

$$[a_i, a_j^\dagger] = 0 \quad \forall i \neq j, \quad (172)$$

$$[a_i, a_i^\dagger] = 1 - 2n_i \quad \text{with } n_i = c_i^\dagger c_i, \quad (173)$$

using that

$$\{Z_i, c_j^{(+)}\} = 0 \quad (174)$$

The corresponding proofs can be found in section 6.8.

6.5 The occupation-number basis in the new operators

The basis states of the fermionic Hilbert space can be written as

$$\begin{aligned} |n_1, n_2, \dots, n_L\rangle &\equiv \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (c_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) |0\rangle && \text{w. } n_i = 0, 1 \\ &= \left\{ \prod_{i=1}^L \left[a_i^\dagger \left(\prod_{j=1}^{i-1} Z_j \right) \right]^{n_i} \right\} |0\rangle && (c_1^\dagger = a_1^\dagger) \\ &= (a_1^\dagger)^{n_1} (a_2^\dagger Z_1)^{n_2} (a_3^\dagger Z_2 Z_1)^{n_3} \dots (a_L^\dagger Z_{L-1} \dots Z_1)^{n_L} |0\rangle \\ &= \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) (Z_1)^{n_2} (Z_2 Z_1)^{n_3} \dots (Z_{L-1} \dots Z_1)^{n_L} |0\rangle \\ &= \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) |0\rangle && \text{w. } n_i = 0, 1, \end{aligned} \quad (175)$$

using $[Z_i, Z_j] = 0 \ \forall i, j$, $[Z_i, c_j] = 0$ for $i \neq j$ (hence $[Z_i, a_j^\dagger] = 0$ for $i \neq j$), and $Z_j |0\rangle = |0\rangle$. The ordering is not important anymore because $[a_i^\dagger, a_j^\dagger] = 0$.

6.6 Action on basis states

One cannot define the action of a_j ($a_j^\dagger$) locally, since the JW string $Z_1 \cdots Z_{j-1}$ is non-local, so one has to examine them on the full many-body basis. For $n_\ell = 0$,

$$\begin{aligned} a_\ell |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 0, \dots, n_L\rangle &= a_\ell \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) |0\rangle \\ &\stackrel{[a_\ell, a_j^\dagger]=0}{=} \left(\prod_{i=1}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) a_\ell |0\rangle = 0, \end{aligned} \quad (176)$$

since $a_\ell |0\rangle = c_\ell |0\rangle = 0$. For $n_\ell = 1$,

$$\begin{aligned} a_\ell |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 1, \dots, n_L\rangle &= a_\ell \left(\prod_{\substack{i=1 \\ i \neq \ell}}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) a_\ell^\dagger |0\rangle \\ &\stackrel{[a_\ell, a_j^\dagger]=0}{=} \left(\prod_{\substack{i=1 \\ i \neq \ell}}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) a_\ell a_\ell^\dagger |0\rangle = \left(\prod_{\substack{i=1 \\ i \neq \ell}}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) c_\ell c_\ell^\dagger |0\rangle \\ &= \left(\prod_{\substack{i=1 \\ i \neq \ell}}^L (a_i^\dagger)^{n_i} \right) |0\rangle = |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 0, \dots, n_L\rangle. \end{aligned} \quad (177)$$

Using $[a_\ell^\dagger, a_j^\dagger] = 0$ and $(a_\ell^\dagger)^2 = 0$, one quickly finds

$$a_\ell^\dagger |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 0, \dots, n_L\rangle = |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 1, \dots, n_L\rangle, \quad (178)$$

$$a_\ell^\dagger |n_1, \dots, n_\ell = 1, \dots, n_L\rangle = 0. \quad (179)$$

Thus a_ℓ ($a_\ell^\dagger$) destroys (creates) a particle in the many-body state *without* giving rise to an extra sign structure (as c_ℓ ($c_\ell^\dagger$) would do).

6.7 Identification with spins

We can thus identify $n_i = 0, 1$ with $n_i = \downarrow, \uparrow$ in the many-body state, and the new operators can be associated with spins by identifying

$$a_j = S_j^-, \quad a_j^\dagger = S_j^+ \quad \& \quad n_j - \frac{1}{2} = S_j^z = \frac{1}{2} \sigma_j^z, \quad (180)$$

since $[S_j^-, S_j^+] = -2S_j^z$ for spins (see the quick refresher on spin, section 9). For instance

$$a_3^\dagger |0\rangle = S_3^+ |\downarrow\downarrow\downarrow\rangle = |\uparrow\downarrow\downarrow\rangle.$$

Matrix elements do not change under the JWT, since it is only a rewriting of operators and a renaming of basis states.

6.8 Proofs about the JWT

Claim: $\{Z_j, c_j^{(+)}\} = 0$.

Proof. On the single site j , with $Z_j |0\rangle_j = |0\rangle_j$, $Z_j |1\rangle_j = -|1\rangle_j$, $c_j |0\rangle_j = 0$ and $c_j |1\rangle_j = |0\rangle_j$,

$$Z_j c_j |0\rangle_j = Z_j \cdot 0 = 0 = c_j |0\rangle_j = c_j Z_j |0\rangle_j, \quad (181)$$

$$Z_j c_j |1\rangle_j = Z_j |0\rangle_j = |0\rangle_j = c_j |1\rangle_j, \quad (182)$$

$$c_j Z_j |1\rangle_j = -c_j |1\rangle_j = -|0\rangle_j. \quad (183)$$

Hence, on both basis states $\{Z_j, c_j\} = Z_j c_j + c_j Z_j = c_j - c_j = 0$, and since $Z_j^\dagger = Z_j$ it follows that $\{Z_j, c_j^\dagger\} = 0$ as well. (see Coleman, Chapter 4.1) $\square$

Claim: $[a_i^{(+)}, a_j^{(+)}] = 0 \quad \forall i, j$.

Proof. Assume w.l.o.g. that $i < j$. Using eq. (170),

$$a_j a_i = (Z_1 \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j) (Z_1 \cdots Z_{i-1} c_i) \stackrel{\substack{[Z_j, c_\ell]=0, j \neq \ell \\ \{c_i, c_j\}=0}}{=} Z_1^2 \cdots Z_{i-1}^2 Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j c_i = -Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_i c_j \quad (= 0 \text{ if } i = j), \quad (184)$$

and likewise

$$a_i a_j = (Z_1 \cdots Z_{i-1} c_i) (Z_1 \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j) \stackrel{[Z_i, c_\ell]=0, i \neq \ell}{=} Z_{i+1} \cdots Z_{j-1} c_i Z_i c_j \stackrel{\{Z_i, c_i\}=0}{=} -Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_i c_j. \quad (185)$$

Comparing the two, $a_i a_j = a_j a_i$, i.e. $[a_i, a_j] = 0$. Analogously for $[a_i^\dagger, a_j^\dagger]$ and for $i > j$; the case $i = j$ is straightforward since $c_i^2 = 0$. $\square$

Claim: $[a_i, a_j^\dagger] = 0 \quad \forall i \neq j$.

Proof. We can show it w.l.o.g. for $i < j$. Using eq. (170) and eq. (174),

$$\begin{aligned} a_i^\dagger a_j &= (c_i^\dagger Z_{i-1} \cdots Z_1) (Z_1 \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j) \stackrel{Z_i^2=1, i < j}{=} c_i^\dagger Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j \\ &= Z_{i+1} \cdots Z_{j-1} c_i^\dagger Z_i c_j \stackrel{\{Z_i, c_i^\dagger\}=0}{=} -Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_i^\dagger c_j = +Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j c_i^\dagger, \end{aligned} \quad (186)$$

and

$$\begin{aligned} a_j a_i^\dagger &= (Z_1 \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j) (c_i^\dagger Z_{i-1} \cdots Z_1) \\ &= Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j c_i^\dagger Z_{i-1}^2 \cdots Z_1^2 \quad ([Z_j, c_\ell^{(+)}] = 0, j \neq \ell) \\ &= Z_i \cdots Z_{j-1} c_j c_i^\dagger. \end{aligned} \quad (187)$$

Both reduce to the same expression, so $a_j a_i^\dagger - a_i^\dagger a_j = 0$ for $i < j$, i.e. $[a_j, a_i^\dagger] = 0$; the case $i > j$ follows straightforwardly. $\square$

Claim: $[a_i, a_i^\dagger] = 1 - 2n_i$ **with** $n_i = c_i^\dagger c_i$.

Proof. Using eq. (170) and $Z_k^2 = \mathbb{1}$,

$$a_i^\dagger a_i = c_i^\dagger Z_{i-1} \cdots Z_1 Z_1 \cdots Z_{i-1} c_i = c_i^\dagger c_i = n_i, \quad (188)$$

$$a_i a_i^\dagger = Z_1 \cdots Z_{i-1} c_i c_i^\dagger Z_{i-1} \cdots Z_1 = c_i c_i^\dagger = 1 - c_i^\dagger c_i, \quad (189)$$

so that

$$[\hat{a}_i, \hat{a}_i^\dagger] = a_i a_i^\dagger - a_i^\dagger a_i = (1 - c_i^\dagger c_i) - c_i^\dagger c_i = 1 - 2\hat{n}_i. \quad (190)$$

□

7 Minimizing complex functions with Wirtinger derivatives

7.1 Definition

Define for $z = x + iy \in \mathbb{C}$ with $x, y \in \mathbb{R}$

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial z} \equiv \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} - i \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \right) \quad \& \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \bar{z}} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial}{\partial y} \right) \quad (191)$$

for functions of one complex variable, and

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial z_j} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} - i \frac{\partial}{\partial y_j} \right) \quad \& \quad \frac{\partial}{\partial \bar{z}_j} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial}{\partial x_j} + i \frac{\partial}{\partial y_j} \right) \quad (192)$$

for functions of multiple complex variables.

7.2 Agreement with the complex derivative

If f is complex differentiable at a point (i.e. the limit $f'(z_0) = \lim_{z \rightarrow z_0} \frac{f(z) - f(z_0)}{z - z_0}$ exists), then $\frac{\partial f}{\partial z}$ agrees with the complex derivative $\frac{df}{dz}$.

Proof. For $f(z) = u(z) + iv(z)$ complex differentiable,

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{\partial f}{\partial z} &\stackrel{(191)}{=} \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} - i \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \right) = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} - i \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} + \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \right) \\ &\stackrel{(191)}{=} \frac{\partial u}{\partial z} + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial z} \stackrel{\text{Def.}}{=} \frac{df}{dz}. \end{aligned} \quad (193)$$

□

7.3 The $\bar{z}$ -derivative and Cauchy–Riemann

Furthermore,

$$\begin{aligned} 0 &\stackrel{!}{=} \frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \right) = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial u}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial u}{\partial y} - \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \right) \\ &\iff \frac{\partial u}{\partial x} = \frac{\partial v}{\partial y} \quad \wedge \quad \frac{\partial v}{\partial x} = -\frac{\partial u}{\partial y}, \end{aligned} \quad (194)$$

so that $0 = \frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}}$ is equivalent to the Cauchy–Riemann equations, i.e. the necessary & sufficient condition for f to be complex differentiable.

7.4 Minimizing a real-valued function

Minimize a real-valued function⁷

$$f: \mathbb{C} \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \tag{195}$$

$$f(z) = f(x, y), \quad (z = x + iy) \tag{196}$$

via the condition

$$\nabla f(x, y) = \begin{pmatrix} \partial_x f \\ \partial_y f \end{pmatrix} \stackrel{!}{=} 0. \tag{197}$$

Then

$$\partial_x f \stackrel{!}{=} 0 \stackrel{!}{=} \partial_y f \quad \Longleftrightarrow \quad \frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}} = \frac{1}{2} \left(\frac{\partial f}{\partial x} + i \frac{\partial f}{\partial y} \right) \stackrel{!}{=} 0, \tag{198}$$

so one can minimize a real-valued function by imposing $\boxed{\frac{\partial f}{\partial \bar{z}} = 0}$.

7.5 References

- *Wirtinger derivatives*, English Wikipedia.

⁷Minimizing a complex-valued f does not make sense because $\mathbb{C}$ has no order.

8 The density matrix, entanglement entropy and their connection to singular value decomposition (SVD)

8.1 Main goal

Prove that for λ_i the eigenvalues of the reduced density matrix and s_i the Schmidt values,

$$S_{\text{Neum}} \equiv \text{Tr}(\rho_A \log \rho_A) = \sum_i \lambda_i \log \lambda_i = \sum_i s_i^2 \log s_i^2. \quad (199)$$

8.2 The density operator

Let $\{p_i, |\psi_i\rangle\}$ be an ensemble of pure states, describing a system that is in one of the states $|\psi_i\rangle$ with probability p_i , i.e. the system is not fully known. Define the density operator as

$$\rho = \sum_i p_i |\psi_i\rangle\langle\psi_i|, \quad p_i \in \mathbb{R} \ \& \ \sum_i p_i = 1, \quad (200)$$

which is a positive semi-definite operator of trace one (see for example Nielsen & Chuang).

8.3 Observables on a composite system

Take a system A with some observable M , and a system B , giving the composite system AB (see Box 2.6). Assume we can measure M on system A ; then a corresponding measurement on AB is $\tilde{M} = M \otimes \mathbb{1}_B$.

Proof. Take AB to be prepared in $|m\rangle|\psi\rangle$ with $M|m\rangle = m|m\rangle$. Applying the measurement to $|m\rangle|\psi\rangle$ should yield m with probability one, i.e. the corresponding projector for $\tilde{M}$ is $P_m \otimes \mathbb{1}_B$. By the spectral theorem, $\tilde{M} = \sum_m m P_m \otimes \mathbb{1}_B = M \otimes \mathbb{1}_B$ for a general state of AB . $\square$

8.4 The reduced density matrix as a partial trace

Measurement averages must be the same whether computed via the full ρ^{AB} or via some ρ^A associated to system A , i.e.

$$\text{tr}(M\rho^A) \stackrel{!}{=} \text{tr}(\tilde{M}\rho^{AB}) = \text{tr}((M \otimes \mathbb{1}_B)\rho^{AB}). \quad (201)$$

Take $\rho^A = \text{tr}_B(\rho^{AB})$ where

$$\text{tr}_B(|a_1\rangle\langle a_2| \otimes |b_1\rangle\langle b_2|) \equiv |a_1\rangle\langle a_2| \text{tr}(|b_1\rangle\langle b_2|) \quad \& \quad \text{tr}_B(\cdot) \text{ linear.} \quad (202)$$

Write ρ^{AB} by using the eigenbasis of M for system A with $M|i\rangle = m_i|i\rangle$ and $\langle i|j\rangle = \delta_{ij}$:

$$\rho^{AB} = \sum_\alpha p^\alpha |\psi\rangle\langle\psi|^\alpha = \sum_\alpha p^\alpha \sum_{ijkl} c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{k\ell}^\alpha)^* |i\rangle_A |j\rangle_B \langle\ell|_B \langle k|_A, \quad (203)$$

$$\rho^A = \sum_\alpha \sum_{ijk\ell} p^\alpha c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{k\ell}^\alpha)^* |i\rangle\langle k|_A \underbrace{\text{tr}(|j\rangle\langle\ell|_B)}_{=\delta_{j\ell}} = \sum_{\alpha,ijk} p^\alpha c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{kj}^\alpha)^* |i\rangle\langle k|_A. \quad (204)$$

Therefore

$$\text{tr}(M\rho^A) = \sum_{\alpha,ijk} p^\alpha c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{kj}^\alpha)^* \underbrace{\text{tr}(m_i |i\rangle\langle k|_A)}_{=m_i\delta_{ik}} = \sum_{\alpha,ij} p^\alpha m_i c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{ij}^\alpha)^*, \quad (205)$$

and similarly $\text{tr}((M \otimes \mathbb{1}_B)\rho^{AB}) = \sum_{\alpha,ij} p^\alpha m_i c_{ij}^\alpha (c_{ij}^\alpha)^*$, which proves the claim. One can also easily show that this is the only map that conserves consistency (see Box 2.6).

8.5 Reduced density matrix of a pure state

Now examine the reduced density matrix for a pure state,

$$\rho_{AB} = |\psi\rangle\langle\psi| = \sum_{ijk\ell} c_{ij}(c_{k\ell})^* |i\rangle_A |j\rangle_B \langle\ell|_B \langle k|_A, \quad (206)$$

$$\rho_A = \text{tr}_B(\rho_{AB}) = \sum_{ijk} c_{ij}(c_{kj})^* |i\rangle\langle k|_A, \quad (207)$$

such that the matrix representation is

$$\boxed{\rho_A = \psi\psi^\dagger}, \quad (208)$$

using that the c_{ij} parametrize the matrix $\psi \in \mathbb{C}^{d_A \times d_B}$, i.e. $|\psi\rangle = \sum_{ij} c_{ij} |i\rangle_A |j\rangle_B$.

8.6 Connection to the SVD

Now use the SVD on ψ :

$$\psi = USV^\dagger \quad \text{with } U \in \mathbb{C}^{d_A \times d_A}, V \in \mathbb{C}^{d_B \times d_B} \text{ unitary.} \quad (209)$$

Then, using $V^\dagger V = \mathbb{1}$,

$$\rho_A = USV^\dagger V S U^\dagger = US^2 U^\dagger, \quad S^2 = \text{diag}(s_1^2, s_2^2, \dots) \in \mathbb{R}_{\geq 0}^{d_A \times d_A}. \quad (210)$$

Furthermore, since ρ_A is hermitian we can diagonalize it with $\rho_A = O D O^\dagger = U S^2 U^\dagger$ and $D = \text{diag}(\lambda_1, \dots)$, so that

$$\boxed{\lambda_i = s_i^2}, \quad (211)$$

i.e. the eigenvalues are given by the (squared) Schmidt values.

8.7 Functions of the density matrix via the spectral theorem

Since ρ_A is hermitian, we can use the spectral theorem to write it as $\rho_A = \sum_i \lambda_i P_i$ where λ_i are its eigenvalues and the eigenvectors $|u_i\rangle$ give $P_i = |u_i\rangle\langle u_i|$, since

$$\rho_A = U D U^\dagger = (|u_1\rangle, \dots, |u_n\rangle) \begin{pmatrix} \lambda_1 & & \\ & \ddots & \\ & & \lambda_n \end{pmatrix} \begin{pmatrix} \langle u_1| \\ \vdots \\ \langle u_n| \end{pmatrix}, \quad \langle u_i | u_j \rangle = \delta_{ij}. \quad (212)$$

Thus a function $f(\cdot)$ applied to ρ_A gives

$$\begin{aligned} f(\rho_A) &= \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!} \rho_A^n \stackrel{(*)}{=} \sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!} \sum_i \lambda_i^n |u_i\rangle\langle u_i| \\ &= \sum_i \left(\sum_{n=0}^{\infty} \frac{f^{(n)}(0)}{n!} \lambda_i^n \right) |u_i\rangle\langle u_i| = \sum_i f(\lambda_i) |u_i\rangle\langle u_i| = U \text{diag}(f(\lambda_i)) U^\dagger, \end{aligned} \quad (213)$$

where $(*)$ uses $\rho_A^n = \sum_i \lambda_i^n |u_i\rangle\langle u_i|$ (e.g. $\rho_A \rho_A = \sum_i \lambda_i^2 |u_i\rangle\langle u_i|$).

8.8 The Von Neumann entanglement entropy

Therefore, for the Von Neumann entanglement entropy,

$$\begin{aligned} S &= \text{Tr}(\rho_A \log \rho_A) = \text{Tr}(\rho_A U \log(\text{diag}(\lambda_i)) U^\dagger) \\ &= \text{Tr}(U \text{diag}(\lambda_i) \underbrace{U^\dagger U}_{=1} \log(\text{diag}(\lambda_i)) U^\dagger) \\ &= \sum_i \lambda_i \log \lambda_i = \boxed{\sum_i s_i^2 \log s_i^2}. \end{aligned} \quad (214)$$

S is zero for two unentangled systems and non-zero for entangled systems.

8.9 Example

In our case, for example, $L = 2$, $N_f = 1$, $N_{\text{ph}} = 1$:

$$\{|01\rangle, |10\rangle\} \text{ \& \; } \{|0\rangle, |1\rangle\} \text{ as bases of } \mathcal{H}_f \text{ \& \; } \mathcal{H}_{\text{ph}}, \quad (215)$$

$$\Rightarrow \{|01, 0\rangle; |01, 1\rangle; |10, 0\rangle; |10, 1\rangle\} \text{ as basis of } \mathcal{H}_f \otimes \mathcal{H}_{\text{ph}}, \quad (216)$$

$$\Rightarrow |\psi\rangle = \sum_{i=1}^2 \sum_{j=1}^2 \psi_{ij} |i\rangle_f |j\rangle \text{ with } (\psi)_{ij} = \psi_{ij} \text{ \& \; } \psi \in \mathbb{C}^{2 \times 2}, \quad (217)$$

$$\Rightarrow S(\rho_A) = \sum_{\ell} s_{\ell}^2 \log s_{\ell}^2. \quad (218)$$

Note that since $\text{tr} \rho^{AB} = \text{tr} \rho^A = \text{tr} \rho^B = 1$ we must have $\sum_{\ell} \lambda_{\ell} = \sum_{\ell} s_{\ell}^2 = 1$.

8.10 References

- M. Nielsen & I. Chuang, *Quantum Computation and Quantum Information* (density operator, partial trace; Box 2.6).
- U. Schollwöck, *The density-matrix renormalization group in the age of matrix product states*, beginning of Chapter 4 (MPS).

9 Quick refresher on spin

Spin can be described with the operators $\hat{S}_x, \hat{S}_y, \hat{S}_z$ that obey the following commutation relations:

$$\boxed{[\hat{S}_j, \hat{S}_k] = i\hbar \epsilon_{jkl} \hat{S}_\ell} \quad (\hbar = 1), \quad (219)$$

with $i, j, k = x, y, z = 1, 2, 3$ and using the Einstein summation convention. One can define raising and lowering operators as

$$\boxed{\hat{S}_\pm = \hat{S}_x \pm i\hat{S}_y} \quad \text{with} \quad \boxed{[S_-, S_+] = -2S_z}. \quad (220)$$

Proof.

$$\begin{aligned} [S_-, S_+] &= [S_x - iS_y, S_x + iS_y] \\ &= [S_x, S_x] + i[S_x, S_y] - i[S_y, S_x] + [S_y, S_y] \\ &= 2i[S_x, S_y] \stackrel{(219)}{=} 2i \cdot i \epsilon_{12\ell} S_\ell = -2 \epsilon_{12\ell} S_\ell = -2S_z, \end{aligned} \quad (221)$$

where the first step used the bilinearity of the commutator and the last step uses $\epsilon_{jkl} = 0$ if two indices are equal, leaving $\epsilon_{123} S_3 = S_z$. $\square$

For spin- $\frac{1}{2}$ particles, one can write

$$S_j = \frac{\hbar}{2} \sigma_j \quad \text{with } \sigma_j \text{ the Pauli matrices, } j = x, y, z, \quad (222)$$

and often again $\hbar = 1$.

10 Quick refresher on unitary transformations

Let's say we have some Hamiltonian $\hat{H}$, which we examine in a basis $\{|v_j\rangle\}$ with $j = 1, \dots, \dim(\mathcal{H})$ and $\hat{H}: \mathcal{H} \rightarrow \mathcal{H}$. The matrix representation of the operator $\hat{H}$ in this basis is thus given by

$$H_{ij} = \left\langle v_i \left| \hat{H} v_j \right. \right\rangle = \langle v_i | \hat{H} | v_j \rangle. \quad (223)$$

Applying a unitary transformation U (with $U^\dagger U = \mathbb{1} = U U^\dagger$), i.e.

$$|v_j\rangle \rightarrow |\tilde{v}_j\rangle = U |v_j\rangle \quad \& \quad \hat{H} \rightarrow \hat{\tilde{H}} = U \hat{H} U^\dagger, \quad (224)$$

yields the matrix elements

$$\tilde{H}_{ij} = \langle \tilde{v}_i | \hat{\tilde{H}} | \tilde{v}_j \rangle = \langle v_i | \underbrace{U^\dagger U}_{=\mathbb{1}} \hat{H} \underbrace{U^\dagger U}_{=\mathbb{1}} | v_j \rangle = \langle v_i | \hat{H} | v_j \rangle = H_{ij}. \quad (225)$$

Hence the matrix representation of an operator does *not* change under a unitary transformation.

11 Quick refresher on the current in electrodynamics

11.1 Maxwell's equations

Given Maxwell's equations,

$$\nabla \cdot \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t) = \frac{1}{\varepsilon_0} \rho(\mathbf{r}, t) \quad (226)$$

$$\nabla \cdot \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{r}, t) = 0 \quad (227)$$

$$\nabla \times \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t) = -\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{r}, t) \quad (228)$$

$$\nabla \times \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{r}, t) = \frac{1}{c^2} \frac{\partial}{\partial t} \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t) + \frac{1}{\varepsilon_0 c^2} \mathbf{j}(\mathbf{r}, t) \quad (229)$$

11.2 Continuity equation

From $\varepsilon_0 \partial_t$ (eq. (226)), using $\partial_x \partial_t = \partial_t \partial_x$,

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \rho(\mathbf{r}, t) = \varepsilon_0 \nabla \cdot (\partial_t \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t)), \quad (230)$$

and from $\varepsilon_0 c^2 \nabla \cdot$ (eq. (229)),

$$\begin{aligned} \nabla \cdot \mathbf{j}(\mathbf{r}, t) &= \nabla \cdot (\nabla \times \mathbf{B}(\mathbf{r}, t)) - \varepsilon_0 \nabla \cdot (\partial_t \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t)) \\ &= -\varepsilon_0 \nabla \cdot (\partial_t \mathbf{E}(\mathbf{r}, t)) \quad (\text{div}(\text{rot } \mathbf{F}) = 0). \end{aligned} \quad (231)$$

Adding the two gives the continuity equation

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \rho(\mathbf{r}, t) + \nabla \cdot \mathbf{j}(\mathbf{r}, t) = 0. \quad (232)$$

11.3 Point-particle solutions

Solutions of the continuity equation:

$$\rho(\mathbf{r}, t) = \sum_{\alpha} q_{\alpha} \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_{\alpha}(t)) \quad (233)$$

$$\mathbf{j}(\mathbf{r}, t) = \sum_{\alpha} q_{\alpha} \mathbf{v}_{\alpha}(t) \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_{\alpha}(t)) \quad (234)$$

Proof. Note that

$$\begin{aligned} \partial_t \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_{\alpha}(t)) &= \partial_t \left(\delta(r_x - r_x^{\alpha}(t)) \delta(r_y - r_y^{\alpha}(t)) \delta(r_z - r_z^{\alpha}(t)) \right) \\ &= - \sum_{i=x,y,z} \dot{r}_i^{\alpha}(t) \partial_{r_i} \delta(r_i - r_i^{\alpha}(t)) = -\dot{\mathbf{r}}_{\alpha}(t) \cdot \nabla \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_{\alpha}(t)), \end{aligned} \quad (235)$$

where we used the chain rule in the second line and

$$\begin{aligned}\nabla \cdot \left(\mathbf{v}_\alpha(t) \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\alpha(t)) \right) &= \sum_{i=x,y,z} \partial_{r_i} \left(v_i^\alpha(t) \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\alpha(t)) \right) \\ &= \sum_{i=x,y,z} v_i^\alpha(t) \partial_{r_i} \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\alpha(t)) = \mathbf{v}_\alpha(t) \cdot \nabla \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_\alpha(t)).\end{aligned}\quad (236)$$

Therefore

$$\frac{\partial}{\partial t} \rho(\mathbf{r}, t) = - \sum_{\alpha} q_{\alpha} \dot{\mathbf{r}}_{\alpha}(t) \cdot \left(\nabla \delta(\mathbf{r} - \mathbf{r}_{\alpha}(t)) \right) = - \nabla \cdot \mathbf{j}(\mathbf{r}, t), \quad (237)$$

which is (232). □

Note that these solutions are not unique (one equation for four components).